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Parenting of Asian Adolescents: A Systematic Review of the Past Decade

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Abstract

Parenting is often conceptualized as a mutual experience between parent and child, embedded within cultural contexts. Yet, existing literature is predominantly dominated by Western perspectives, leaving it unclear whether Western frameworks apply to Asian families and whether there are unique manifestations of parenting in Asian context. Given the consistent evidence of informant discordance in parenting, the articles included in this review required methodological and conceptual rigor by incorporating both adolescents' and parents' perspectives on parenting. This systematic review applies the *Parenting in Cultural Context* framework on 60 articles published in the past decade on parenting among Asian adolescents. Findings largely support hypothesized paths within the framework, supporting the applicability of the framework to Asian cultures. This review summarizes key Asian-culturally specific constructs (e.g., filial piety and training beliefs, strict-affectionate parenting styles) and highlights the role of acculturation-related factors in Asian American parenting. Moreover, informant discordance was found between adolescents' and parents' reports, as well as between mothers' and fathers' reports of parenting, which affected the influence of parenting constructs based on the informant. Results reinforce the cultural underpinnings of parenting in the Asian context and highlight the use of multiple family perspectives in capturing the full complexity of adolescent parenting experience.

Keywords Asian parenting · Adolescents' and parents' reports · Parental characteristics · Parenting cognitions · Parenting behaviors · Family climate

Introduction

Parenting can be understood as a shared experience between parent and child (Sanders & Turner, 2018), and has a critical influence on child development (Morris & Smith, 2022). There is growing recognition that parenting is embedded within cultural contexts (Bornstein, 2012). However, the existing literature is largely dominated by Western perspectives, raising questions about whether these perspectives can be applied to non-Western contexts and the ways in which parenting may manifest differently across cultures, such as in Asians. Prior research on cultural commonality and specificity has mostly focused on the effects of parenting on child outcomes (e.g., Lansford et al., 2016; Rothenberg et al., 2021), with limited attention given to parenting concepts and its underlying antecedents. Understanding how and why parents think and behave in specific ways is crucial, as it shapes the parenting process and, in turn, influences child development

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in diverse cultural contexts (Bornstein, 2016). Given that Asians constitute a large (i.e., 60% of the world's global population) yet relatively understudied population (United Nations, 2022), it is essential to review and examine whether Western theories on associations among parenting constructs are applicable to Asian populations and to explore the culture-specific manifestations of parenting within Asian contexts. Given that adolescence is a sensitive period for developing autonomy (Steinberg, 2000) and parenting is a mutual and transactional interaction between parents and adolescents (Soenens et al., 2019), incorporating perspectives from both adolescents and parents is essential to understand the actual parenting experience (Korelitz & Garber, 2016). Furthermore, growing evidence has suggested that parental values and styles have evolved amid dramatic socio-economic development (Curran & Hill, 2022; Doepke & Zilibotti, 2019), particularly in Asian countries over the past decade (Chatterjee et al., 2021). Therefore, an updated understanding around parenting in Asians is crucial to address through an examination of parenting constructs and their associations. Thus, the current study introduces the *Parenting in Cultural Context* framework to present a systematic review of articles from the past decade (2013–2023) on parenting and its precursors in Asians that includes both parents' and adolescents' perspectives, to examine the applicability of Western frameworks and identify culture-specific parenting constructs in Asian contexts.

Parenting in the Cultural Context Framework

From an ecological perspective, culture functions as a macrosystem factor that shapes the family system and parenting (Bronfenbrenner & Morris, 2006). Indeed, Kağitçibaşi (2017) developed a general family theory which situates the self and family within the cultural context. According to Kağitçibaşi's (2017) theory, although the mutual influence between family values and family interactions and socialization are proposed to be universal across cultures, the specific expressions differ: in interdependent cultures, parents prioritize obedience orientation in childrearing, whereas in independent cultures, there is an emphasis on self-reliance orientation in childrearing. Such premise informs the *Parenting in Cultural Context* framework (see Fig. 1), conceptualizing culture as an overarching context that influences all aspects of the parenting and positing that the *associations* among parenting constructs are universal and applicable to both Western and Asian populations, while *manifestations* of specific constructs may be expressed in culturally distinct ways. Existing systematic reviews of parenting in Asian populations have focused on the influence of parenting on child development (e.g., Lee & Gleespen, 2024). The *Parenting in Cultural Context* framework, which guides the current systematic review, instead focuses on the concepts of parenting and its precursors, as it is essential to understand whether, and in what ways, these parenting constructs may be associated with each other, to inform the parenting

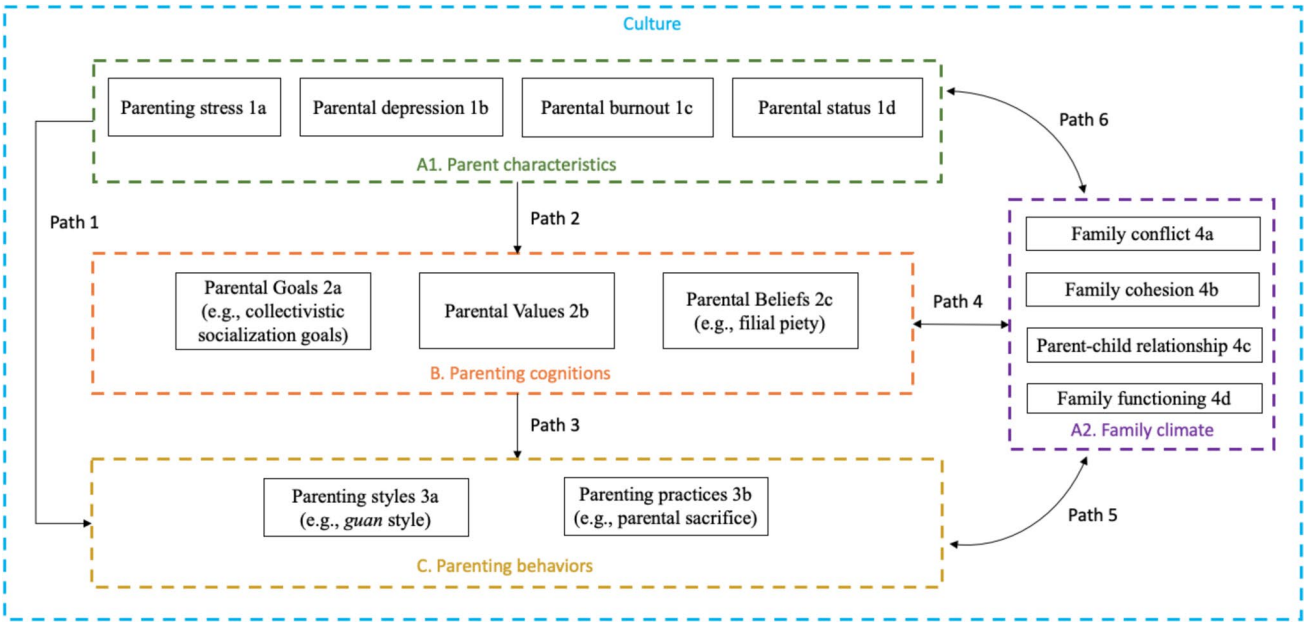

Fig. 1 Parenting in cultural context framework

process, in turn influencing child development in Asian context (Bornstein, 2016).

The *Parenting in Cultural Context* framework is organized around four categories: (A1) parental characteristics, (A2) family climate, (B) parenting cognitions, and (C) parenting behaviors. Among these, parenting cognitions (i.e., parental goals, values, and beliefs) and behaviors (i.e., parenting styles and practices) are widely regarded as the core components of parenting (Bornstein & Cote, 2006; Bornstein et al., 2018). Consistent with earlier theoretical perspectives (Bornstein & Cote, 2006; Darling & Steinberg, 1993), the *Parenting in Cultural Context* framework posits that parenting cognitions could serve as a precursor that guides parenting practices (Path 3, Fig. 1). Moreover, as some theories suggest that parental psychological distress is prospectively linked to disrupted parenting (Conger et al., 1993), this study's framework incorporates parent characteristic (i.e., parenting stress, parental depression, burnout, and status) as critical factors influencing both parenting cognitions (Path 2, Fig. 1) and parenting behaviors (Path 1, Fig. 1). Path 1, Path 2 and Path 3 together constitute a process where parental characteristics shape parenting cognitions, which in turn influence parenting behaviors (i.e., a mediational path). Additionally, drawing from family systems perspective that highlight the interdependence of family subsystems (e.g., parent–child and interparental systems) and whole-family interactions and relations (Cox & Paley, 2003), the *Parenting in Cultural Context* framework also includes family climate (i.e., family conflict, cohesion, functioning, and parent–child relationship) and proposes that it is associated with parenting cognitions (Path 4, Fig. 1), parenting behaviors (Path 5, Fig. 1), and parental characteristics (Path 6, Fig. 1). To sum up, the *Parenting in Cultural Context* framework positions parent characteristics and family climate as primary precursors of parenting cognitions and behaviors, and parenting cognitions as a potential mediator in the association between parent characteristics and parenting behaviors. It also hypothesizes that certain parenting constructs may function as moderators, such as parental depression exacerbating the negative impact of family conflict on parenting practices. While the *Parenting in Cultural Context* framework outlines pathways with specific directions and identify constructs with specific roles, it also recognizes that these factors may potentially function as predictors, mediators, moderators, or outcomes, reflecting the complexity and reciprocity inherent in parenting processes (Kerig, 2019). Together, this framework integrates multiple perspectives to provide a comprehensive understanding of the interplay among parent characteristics, parenting cognitions, parenting behaviors, and family climate, offering valuable insights into adolescent parenting in Asian contexts.

Parenting in Cultural Context framework also acknowledges culturally specific manifestations of parenting from indigenous perspectives. A well-known concept in Asian parenting is Chao's (1994) notion of *guan* (or "training), rooted in Confucian traditions. *Guan* emphasizes a high degree of parental guidance, firm directives, and high expectations to ensure children develop into successful members of society. This approach is driven by a strong belief in parents' utmost responsibility for appropriate and successful childrearing (Chao, 1994, 2000a). *Guan* can manifest in both parenting beliefs (e.g., "Parents must train their children to work hard and be disciplined") and behaviors (e.g., "I help my children with their studies as much as my education allows," as an example of parenting practices, Fig. 1). Similarly, the concept of *ga-jung-kyo-yuk*, which means "home (or family) education", has been proposed as an indigenous concept of family socialization in Korea (Choi et al., 2013). It highlights the core values of role-modeling, the centrality of the family, and family hierarchy. Both *guan* and *ga-jung-kyo-yuk* are in accord with Asian cultural values (e.g., filial piety and collectivism goals) and illustrate a nuanced combination of Western authoritative and authoritarian styles (Choi et al., 2013; Pearson & Rao, 2003).

Additionally, collectivism (as an example of parental goals, Fig. 1) is one of the central values in Asian cultures for shaping socialization goals of Asian parents (Kağitçibaşi, 2017). Within a cultural context that emphasizes relatedness, social norms and hierarchies, parents encourage children to develop behaviors that contribute to the harmonious functioning of the social unit, and wish their children to be self-disciplined, hardworking, and obedient (Chao, 2000b; Keller et al., 2006). Filial piety beliefs (as an example of parenting beliefs, Fig. 1) is another cultural-specific parenting cognitions, and it derives from the core pillar of Confucian ethics (Ho, 1996). This concept emphasizes that children should provide various forms of emotional and material support to their parents, including respect, love, attendance, compliance and memorialization, and is comprised of two distinct elements: reciprocity and authoritarianism (Yeh, 2003). Accordingly, there are two types of filial piety beliefs; reciprocal filial piety develops out of genuine affection from positive parent–child interaction, while authoritarian filial piety is guided by obedience to role obligations based on the family hierarchy (Bedford & Yeh, 2021; Yeh, 2003). These indigenous constructs above are presented as examples of cultural manifestations in Fig. 1.

Reports of Parenting Experiences in Adolescence

In examining the proposed framework, the current review includes two main methodological features: (1) inclusion of both parent and adolescent reports of parenting experiences; and (2) the importance of examining adolescence as a key developmental period. Parenting is a transactional interaction between parents and adolescents (Soenens et al.,

2019), representing the experiences of both parents and adolescents. In fact, discrepancy often exists in the experience and perspectives of parenting reported by parents and adolescents (Korelitz & Garber, 2016), and inclusion of a single reporter may lead to reports that are biased by an individual's own views of their environment and behavior. For instance, a meta-analysis on congruence of parents' and children's perceptions of parenting found that parents' reports on their own behavior were more favorable than their children's reports (Korelitz & Garber, 2016). As such, this study focuses on studies that have both parent and child reports of parenting, offering a more comprehensive understanding of parenting while minimizing biases (e.g., common-method variance) associated with single-reporter (Broderick, 1993).

Moreover, parenting during adolescence is both pivotal and challenging, making this developmental period critical for understanding parent-adolescent interactions. A key challenge lies in continuously adapting caregiving roles and practices to match adolescents' evolving motivations and capabilities (Kobak et al., 2017). As adolescents seek greater independence, parents strive to guide them through emerging risks and responsibilities, resulting in interactions shaped by both parents' effort to navigate their children and adolescents' growing agency in negotiating their roles (Soenens et al., 2019). In addition, as adolescents increase the amount of time they spend without adult supervision, parents balance concerns about the adolescent's safety with support for the adolescent's autonomy in their decision-making (Kobak et al., 2017). Thus, by reviewing studies that include reports from both adolescents and parents, this paper's systematic review aims to capture the nuanced and various experiences of parenting during this critical developmental period.

Current Study

There is a need for a comprehensive understanding of parenting experiences in Asians and how different family members (i.e., parent and adolescent) may perceive these experiences. Thus, the present systematic review summarizes journal articles in the past decade that examine parenting constructs in Asian families with adolescents between the ages of 10 and 20 years and that include parenting reports from both parents and adolescents. The review examined specific characteristics of these articles, such as the tested paths (i.e., significant and non-significant paths), the role of parenting variables (e.g., predictor, mediator, moderator, and outcome), study design (e.g., longitudinal, cross-sectional), a summary of major findings in the tested paths and parenting constructs. These characteristics help inform whether the framework could be applied to Asian culture and whether there are culture-specific manifestations in Asian families. Examining the articles included in this study's systematic review against the *Parenting in Cultural Context* framework can provide valuable insights into the gaps between theory and research, offering potential directions for future research.

Methods

Inclusion Criteria

This study includes studies from countries and areas in East Asia (China, Taiwan, Japan, and South Korea), Southeast Asia (Indonesia, Thailand, and Vietnam), and South Asia (India and Sri Lanka), as well as samples including people who identified as belonging to a specific ethnic group from these regions but who live in countries outside of Asia (e.g., Chinese Americans living in the United States). Countries that were excluded include those in Central Asia, West Asia and North Asia, as their residents are sometimes classified as White and/or Middle Eastern according to the United States Census (United States Census Bureau, 2023).

Initial Search and Abstract Screening

The database EBSCO PsycINFO was used to conduct the initial search between May 9th and May 14th, 2023, by using the country and the word "parent" for those living in a given Asian region (e.g., "China AND parent", "Vietnam AND parent") in the "Title" search field. To include studies that did not specify a country of origin for their Asian sample, the search term "Asian AND parent" in the "Title" search field was used to capture samples such as Asian parents living in the U.S. For these search terms, the stem word to derive variations of the word (e.g., parent was searched as parent*, Vietnam was searched as Vietnam*) was used. For publication type, the search was limited to academic journals that were published between 2013 and 2023, written in English. For methodology, the focus was on empirical studies, and excluded were studies that were not quantitative (e.g., focus group) or that presented a review of other studies (e.g., meta-analyses and systematic reviews). For population, any articles about animals were excluded. Any duplicates were eliminated, yielding in total 1407 articles.

The abstracts of the 1407 articles were screened by an initial coder according to three inclusion criteria: (1) the article was an empirical study with at least one quantitative component, (2) the article measured at least one aspect of parenting in Asians, and (3) the article included participants who were Asian or of Asian origin. This first round of coding resulted in 935 articles that met the three inclusion criteria. The full-text PDFs for these abstracts were obtained for further coding by two additional coders who reviewed the first round of coding; the first author resolved discrepancies

between the coders. Only 881 articles met the three inclusion criteria after reviewing the full texts.

Coding for Parenting Constructs and Measures

The 881 included articles were coded for parenting measures and constructs. This coding was an open-ended process, in which a first coder identified the parenting measures and their corresponding constructs in each article; a second and then third coder subsequently reviewed and revised previous coder's round of coding. The first author resolved discrepancies between coders. Once the coding process was completed, articles with the most common parenting constructs and measures were further coded to quantify the frequency for both parenting measures and constructs across the articles.

Eligibility for Inclusion

Given the scope of this study, the articles were further assessed for two additional criteria: (1) the study included an adolescent participant between the ages of 10 and 20; and (2) the articles included an adolescent and caregiver's report about parenting. This process took three rounds of coding, in which an initial coder determined whether an article met these additional inclusion criteria. The second and third coders then reviewed the previous coder's coding. Any discrepancies between coders were resolved by the first author. Only 63 articles met these final inclusion criteria (see Fig. 2 for flow diagram, from the initial search to the assessment of articles for inclusion in this study).

Quality Assessment

The quality of all 63 articles included in this study was assessed using Appendix G Quality Appraisal Checklist from the National Institute for Health and Care Excellence (NICE National Institute for Health Care and Excellence, 2012), based on Graphical appraisal tool for epidemiological studies (GATE) (Jackson et al., 2006). This checklist is used to assess the external and internal validity of studies that report correlations and associations, ensuring quality control of the selected articles for inclusion in a systematic review. It includes five parts: population, method, outcomes, analyses, and summary (Table 1). The population part assesses external validity, while the other four parts (i.e., method, outcomes, analyses, and summary) assess internal validity of the studies. In the "Method" part, the question 2.5 (i.e., "Is the setting applicable to the UK?") was adapted to "Is the setting applicable to the country it was conducted in?".

Articles were rated for each checklist questions as follows: "++" (i.e., for the particular aspect in each question, the study was designed in such a way as to minimize risk), "+" (i.e., for the particular aspect, the study may not have addressed all potential sources of bias), "-" (i.e., for the particular aspect, significant sources of bias may persist), "NR" (i.e., for the particular aspect, the study fails to report how they have been considered), or "NA" (i.e., the particular aspect is not applicable given the study design), as shown in Table 2. The two "cumulative" columns display the percentages of criteria met for each aspect of validity. Specifically, "cumulative 1" corresponds to external validity (Question 1.1–Question 1.3), and "cumulative 2" reflects internal validity (Question 2.2 –Question 4.4). An overall quality rating for each article is shown in Question 5.1 for internal validity and Question 5.2 for external validity, in which articles were rated as "++" if the article was rated as "++" or "+" for all or most (i.e., 70% or more) of the criteria, "+" if the article was rated as "++" or "+" for some of the criteria (i.e., 50% to 70%), or "−" if the article was rated "++" or "+" for few of the criteria (i.e., less than 50%). The results of the quality assessment are shown in Table 2. Out of the 63 studies, 60 articles were rated as "++" for internal (Question 5.1) and external (Question 5.2) validity, thus, they are considered to have good quality and were included in this study. In order to maintain the integrity of the review, three intervention studies were excluded as they did not include a control group, which is considered a serious design flaw.

Finally, the coding summaries of the 60 articles included in the study (i.e., demographics of youth and parents, parenting measures, study design, tested paths, results of the tested paths and major findings) are presented (Table 4).

Results

Characteristics of Studies Meeting Inclusion Criteria

Table 4 presents the information on the final 60 articles meeting inclusion criteria, including information on each article's demographic information of parents and children, parenting measures and parenting variable's function (e.g., predictor, mediator, moderator, or outcome), study design (including cross-sectional and longitudinal study), tested paths of this study's *Parenting in Cultural Context* conceptual framework (including significant and non-significant paths), major findings of the paths in this study's conceptual framework, and major findings of each article. At least two co-authors of the paper provided quality control review of the information in Table 4.

Participants Characteristics and Measures of Parenting Constructs

Among the 60 articles included in this study, Chinese youth ($n = 41$), including but not limited to Chinese American and

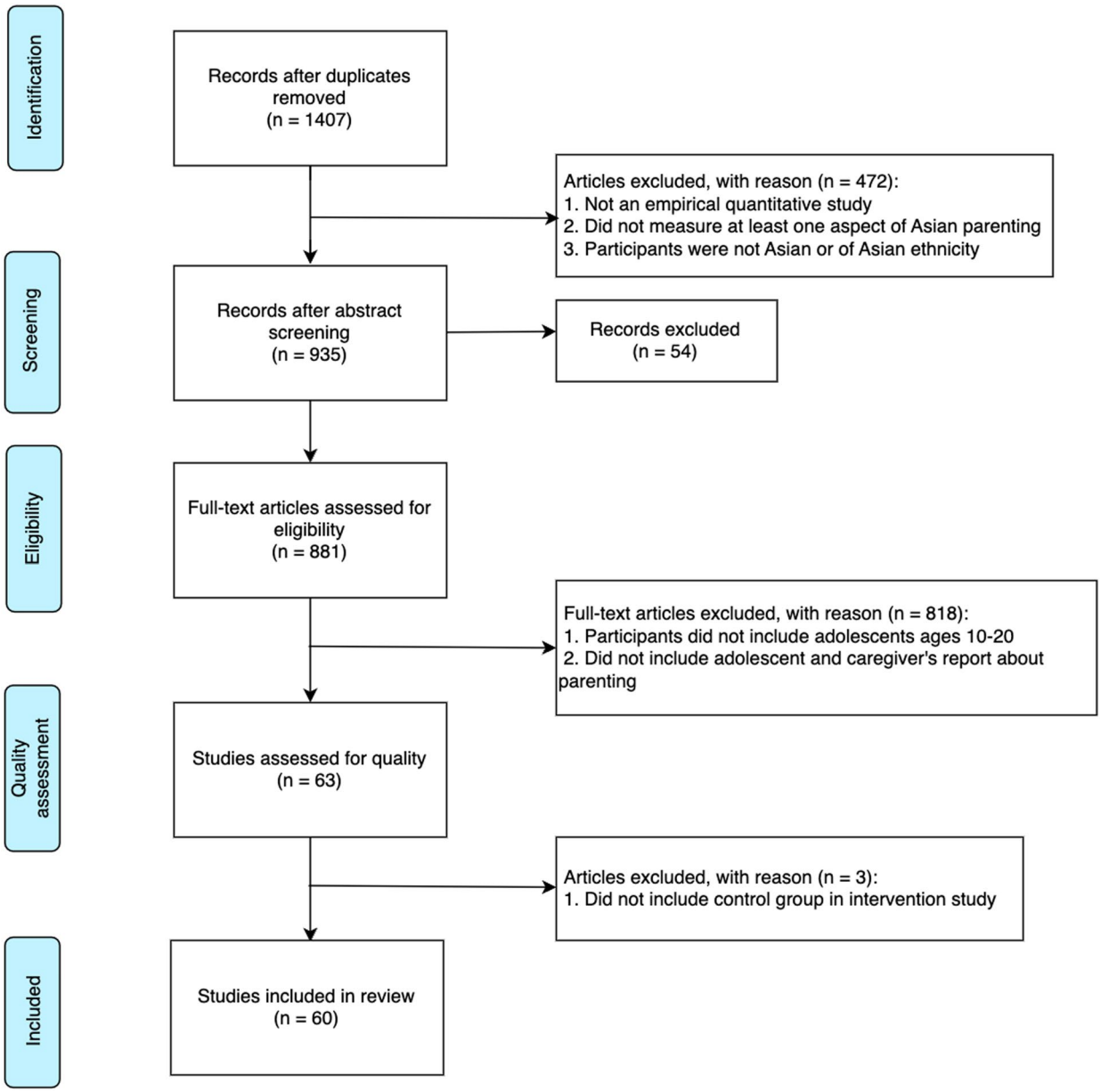

Fig. 2 Flow diagram of search and inclusion procedures

Chinese Canadian, was the most sampled ethnic group followed by Asian Indian ($n = 5$) and Taiwanese ($n = 5$). As such, the most common ethnic group for caregivers was also Chinese ($n = 41$) and Taiwanese ($n = 5$). Only one study included participants from multiple Asian ethnicities (e.g., Asian Indian and Vietnamese) (Bhan et al., 2019).

This study also identified the 20 most widely used parenting measures and its corresponding constructs to study parenting in Asians from the broader scope of selected articles ($n = 881$). Table 3 summarizes the frequency of these most widely used parenting measures among the 60 articles included in this review. Most articles assessed Asian parenting constructs by using pre-existing and well-developed Western measures such as the Parenting Practices Questionnaire (PPQ) and Parenting Styles and Dimensions Questionnaire (PSDQ) (Robinson et al., 1995, 2001), the Parental Authority Questionnaire (Buri, 1991), and the Psychological Control Scale (Barber, 1996). Other articles employed a measure designed for Asian samples, that is, the Asian American Family Conflict Scale (Lee et al., 2000) that assesses disagreements between U.S born children and their Asian immigrant parents regarding cultural values, and the Chinese Family Assessment Instrument (Shek, 2002, 2003; Shek & Ma, 2010; Siu & Shek, 2005), that measures family

Table 1 Checklist for quality assessment

Part 1	Population
Q1.1	Is the source population or source area well described?
Q1.2	Is the eligible population or area representative of the source population or area?
Q1.3	Do the selected participants or areas represent the eligible population or area?
Part 2	Method
Q2.1	Selection of exposure (and comparison) group. How was selection bias minimized?
Q2.2	Was the selection of explanatory variables based on a sound theoretical basis?
Q2.3	Was the contamination acceptably low? (Did any in the comparison group receive the exposure? If so, was it sufficient to cause important bias?)
Q2.4	How well were likely confounding factors identified and controlled?
Q2.5	Is the setting applicable to the country it was conducted in?
Part 3	Outcome
Q3.1	Were the outcome measures and procedures reliable?
Q3.2	Were the outcome measurements complete?
Q3.3	Were all the important outcomes assessed?
Q3.4	Was there a similar follow-up time in exposure and comparison groups?
Q3.5	Was follow-up time meaningful?
Part 4	Analyses
Q4.1	Was the study sufficiently powered to detect an intervention effect (if one exists)?
Q4.2	Were multiple explanatory variables considered in the analyses?
Q4.3	Were the analytical methods appropriate?
Q4.4	Was the precision of association given or calculable? Is association meaningful?
Part 5	Summary
Q5.1	Are the study results internally valid (i.e. unbiased)?
Q5.2	Are the findings generalizable to the source population (i.e. externally valid)?

interactions (e.g., communication, harmony and conflict, parental concern, mutuality, and parental control).

Summary of the Pathways Examined by Articles Meeting Inclusion Criteria

Based on the proposed framework (Fig. 1), parenting-related constructs were grouped into four categories (i.e., parent characteristics, parenting cognitions, family climate, and parenting behaviors) linked through six pathways (i.e., Paths 1 through Path 6). Among the articles included in the review, 14 studies examined the association between parent characteristics and parenting behaviors (Path 1) or parenting cognition (Path 2). Specifically, one article (Cui et al., 2021) examines the association between parental stress and parenting practices (Path 1a to 3b) as well as the relation between parental mental health problems and parenting practices (Path 1b to 3b). The other seven articles examined the association between parental mental health problems and parenting practices (Path 1b to 3b). One article (Yeung & Chan, 2016) examined the mediating role of parental mental health problems in the relation between parental religious involvement and youth's mental health (Path 1b to 3b). Two articles (Chen et al., 2022; Yang et al., 2021) examined the indirect association between parental burnout and youth's outcomes through parenting practices (Path 1c to 3b). Furthermore, two articles (Cheung & Park, 2016; Choi & Thomas, 2015) focused on the association between parental status (e.g., marital status) and parenting practices (Path 1d to 3b), and one article (G. Zhang et al., 2017) examined the association between parental status (e.g., immigration status), parenting styles and parenting practices (Path 1d to 3a and 1d to 3b). For Path 2, only two articles (Arora et al., 2020; Shih & Yi, 2014) examined the association between parent characteristics and parenting cognitions, specifically, the association between parental occupational status and parental values (Path 1d to 2b), and parental mental health problems with parental beliefs about anxiety (Path 1b to 2c).

Furthermore, ten studies examined the associations between parenting cognitions and parenting behaviors (Path 3). Among these articles, two studies (Luebbe et al., 2018; Zhou et al., 2021) examined the mediating role of parenting practices in the association between parenting cognitions and youth mental health (Path 2a to 3b). One article (Chen-Bouck et al., 2019) examined the associations between parental socialization goals and parenting styles (Path 2a to 3a) or parenting practices (Path 2a to 3b); as well as the associations between parental "training" beliefs and parenting styles (Path 2c to 3a) or parenting practices (Path 2c to 3b). One article (Arora et al., 2020) examined the association between parental beliefs and parenting styles (Path 2c to 3a) and another one (Ghosh & Fouad, 2016) studied the

Table 2 Quality assessment of studies

Article	Q1.1	Q1.2	Q1.3	Cmlt 1	Q2.1	Q2.2	Q2.3	Q2.4	Q2.5	Q3.1	Q3.2	Q3.3	Q3.4	Q3.5	Q4.1	Q4.2	Q4.3	Q4.4	Cmlt 2	Q5.1	Q5.2
Arora et al. (2020)	++	+	+	100%	−	+	−	+	++	++	+	+	NR	NA	NR	++	++	++	90%	++	++
Ballard et al. (2018)	+	+	+	100%	NR	++	NR	+	++	+	+	+	+	−	+	++	++	+	90%	++	++
Bhan et al. (2019)	++	+	+	100%	NR	++	NR	++	++	+	++	++	++	NA	NR	++	++	++	100%	++	++
Chang et al. (2013)	+	++	+	100%	NR	+	−	−	++	+	+	+	NR	NA	NR	+	−	+	70%	++	++
Chen et al. (2015)	+	+	+	100%	+	++	NR	++	++	+	+	+	++	++	NR	++	−	++	90%	++	++
Chen et al. (2016)	+	+	+	100%	NR	++	NR	+	++	++	+	++	NR	NA	+	++	+	+	100%	++	++
Chen et al. (2022)	+	+	+	100%	NR	++	NR	+	++	++	+	++	NR	NA	NR	+	−	+	90%	++	++
Chen-Bouck et al. (2019)	+	+	++	100%	NR	++	NR	+	++	++	+	++	NR	NA	NR	++	+	++	100%	++	++
Chen-Gaddini et al. (2020)	+	+	++	100%	NR	++	+	+	++	+	+	++	NR	NA	NR	++	−	+	90%	++	++
Cheung and Park (2016)	−	+	+	90%	NR	+	NR	+	++	+	+	++	NR	NA	NR	++	+	+	100%	++	++
Cheung et al. (2020)	++	++	++	100%	NR	++	NR	++	++	+	++	++	NR	NA	NR	++	−	++	90%	++	++
Choi and Thomas (2015)	+	+	+	100%	NR	++	NR	++	++	+	++	++	NR	NA	NR	++	+	+	100%	++	++
Cui et al. (2021)	+	+	+	100%	NR	++	NR	++	++	+	++	+	NR	NA	NR	++	+	++	100%	++	++
Cupp et al. (2013)	+	+	+	100%	++	++	NR	+	++	+	+	++	+	+	−	+	++	++	90%	++	++
Ding et al. (2022)	+	++	++	100%	NR	++	NR	++	++	+	++	++	NR	NA	NR	++	+	++	100%	++	+
Fjermestad et al. (2021)	+	+	+	100%	NR	+	NR	+	++	+	++	++	+	++	NR	++	++	++	100%	++	++
French et al. (2013)	+	++	+	100%	++	++	NR	++	++	+	++	++	NR	NA	NR	++	+	++	100%	++	++
Fung et al. (2017)	++	++	++	100%	NR	++	NR	++	++	+	++	++	NR	NA	NR	++	+	++	100%	++	++
Ghosh and Fouad (2016)	+	++	++	100%	NR	++	NR	+	++	+	++	++	NR	NA	NR	++	+	+	100%	++	++
Heimpel et al. (2018)	+	+	++	100%	NR	++	NR	+	++	+	++	++	NR	NA	NR	++	+	+	100%	++	++
Hou et al. (2016)	+	++	++	100%	NR	++	NR	++	++	+	++	++	+	+	NR	++	++	+	100%	++	++
Hou et al. (2017)	+	+	+	100%	NR	++	NR	++	++	+	++	++	++	++	NR	++	++	+	100%	++	++
Hsieh et al. (2017)	++	++	++	100%	NR	++	NR	++	++	+	++	++	NR	NA	NR	++	+	+	100%	++	++
Jensen and Dost-Gozakan (2015)	++	++	++	100%	NR	++	NR	++	++	+	++	++	NR	NA	NR	++	+	+	100%	++	++
Kim and Wang et al. 2013)	+	++	++	100%	NR	++	NR	++	++	+	++	++	++	++	NR	++	++	+	100%	++	++
Kim and Chen et al. (2013)	+	++	++	100%	NR	++	NR	++	++	+	++	++	++	++	NR	++	++	++	100%	++	++
Kim et al. (2014)	−	+	++	90%	NR	++	NR	++	++	+	++	++	++	++	NR	++	++	+	100%	++	++
Kim et al. (2017)	−	−	++	80%	NR	++	NR	++	++	+	++	++	NR	NA	NR	++	+	+	100%	++	++
E. H. Lee et al. (2013)	+	++	++	100%	NR	++	NR	++	++	+	++	++	++	++	NR	++	++	+	100%	++	++
S. J. Lee et al. (2013)	−	+	++	90%	NR	++	NR	++	++	+	++	++	NR	NA	NR	+	+	+	100%	++	++
Leung and Shek (2013)	−	+	+	90%	NR	+	NR	+	++	+	++	++	NR	NA	NR	++	+	++	100%	++	++
Leung and Shek (2014)	−	−	+	80%	NR	++	NR	++	++	+	++	++	NR	NA	NR	++	+	+	100%	++	++
Leung and Shek (2016a)	−	++	+	90%	NR	++	NR	++	++	+	++	++	NR	NA	NR	++	+	++	100%	++	++
Leung (2018)	+	++	++	100%	NR	++	NR	++	++	+	++	++	NR	NA	NR	+	+	+	100%	++	++
Leung and Shek (2019)	+	++	++	100%	NR	++	NR	++	++	+	++	++	NR	NA	NR	++	+	+	100%	++	++
Li et al. (2020)	+	++	++	100%	NR	++	NR	++	++	+	++	++	NR	NA	NR	++	+	++	100%	++	++
Liew et al. (2014)	+	++	+	100%	NR	++	NR	++	++	+	++	++	NR	NA	NR	++	+	++	100%	++	++

Table 2 (continued)

Article	Q1.1	Q1.2	Q1.3	Cmlt 1	Q2.1	Q2.2	Q2.3	Q2.4	Q2.5	Q3.1	Q3.2	Q3.3	Q3.4	Q3.5	Q4.1	Q4.2	Q4.3	Q4.4	Cmlt 2	Q5.1	Q5.2
Liu and Jiang (2021)	+	++	++	100%	NR	++	NR	++	++	+	++	++	NR	NA	NR	++	+	++	100%	++	++
Lo et al. (2023)	+	++	++	100%	NR	++	NR	++	++	+	++	++	++	++	NR	++	++	+	100%	++	++
Luebbe et al. (2018)	−	+	+	90%	+	+	NR	+	++	+	++	+	NR	NA	NR	++	+	++	100%	++	++
Luo et al. (2020)	+	++	+	100%	NR	++	NR	++	++	+	++	++	NR	NA	NR	++	+	+	100%	++	++
Miao et al. (2018)	−	+	++	90%	++	++	NR	++	++	+	++	++	++	++	NR	++	++	++	100%	++	++
Ranganathan and Montemayor (2014)	−	+	++	90%	NR	++	NR	++	++	+	++	++	NR	NA	NR	++	+	+	100%	++	++
Raval et al. (2013)	++	++	++	100%	NR	++	NR	++	++	+	++	++	NR	NA	NR	+	+	+	100%	++	++
Rindermann et al. (2013)	++	++	++	100%	NR	++	NR	++	++	+	++	++	NR	NA	NR	++	+	+	100%	++	++
Rohanachandra et al. (2020)	−	−	+	80%	NR	+	NR	+	++	+	+	+	NR	NA	NR	+	++	+	100%	++	++
Shih and Yi (2014)	−	+	+	90%	NR	+	NR	++	++	+	++	+	NR	NA	NR	+	+	+	100%	++	++
To et al. (2020)	−	−	++	80%	NR	++	NR	++	++	+	++	+	NR	NA	NR	++	+	+	100%	++	++
Vergara et al. (2015)	−	−	+	80%	NR	++	NR	++	++	+	++	++	++	++	NR	++	++	+	100%	++	++
Wang and Faldowski (2014)	++	+	+	100%	NR	++	NR	++	++	+	++	++	NR	NA	NR	++	+	+	100%	++	++
Wang et al. (2018)	+	++	++	100%	NR	++	NR	++	++	+	++	++	NR	NA	NR	++	+	++	100%	++	++
Wang et al. (2021)	+	+	++	100%	NR	+	NR	++	++	+	++	++	NR	NA	NR	++	+	+	100%	++	++
Yang et al. (2021)	+	++	++	100%	NR	++	NR	++	++	+	++	++	NR	NA	NR	++	+	+	100%	++	++
Yang et al. (2022)	+	+	++	100%	NR	++	NR	++	++	+	++	++	++	++	NR	++	++	++	100%	++	++
Yasui et al. (2018)	−	−	+	80%	NR	++	NR	++	++	+	++	++	NR	NA	NR	++	+	+	100%	++	++
Yeung (2016a)	++	++	++	100%	NR	++	NR	++	++	+	++	++	NR	NA	NR	++	+	+	100%	++	++
Yeung (2016b)	++	+	++	100%	NR	++	NR	++	++	+	++	++	NR	NA	NR	++	+	+	100%	++	++
Yeung and Chan (2016)	+	++	++	100%	++	++	NR	++	++	+	++	++	NR	NA	NR	++	+	+	100%	++	++
Yeung et al. (2018)	++	++	++	100%	NR	++	NR	++	++	+	++	++	NR	NA	NR	++	+	+	100%	++	++
Yoon et al. (2021)	+	++	++	100%	NR	++	NR	++	++	+	++	++	++	++	NR	++	++	++	100%	++	++
W. Zhang et al. (2017)	+	++	++	100%	NR	++	NR	++	++	+	++	++	++	++	NR	++	++	+	100%	++	++
G. Zhang et al. (2017)	−	+	++	90%	NR	++	NR	++	++	+	++	++	NR	NA	NR	++	+	++	100%	++	++
Zhou et al. (2021)	−	++	++	90%	NR	++	NR	++	++	+	++	++	NR	NA	NR	++	+	++	100%	++	++

Cmlt stands for cumulative 1 and cumulative 2. For each question, studies were rated as "++" (i.e., minimized risk of bias), "+" (i.e., potential sources of bias not addressed), "−" (i.e., significant sources of bias may persist), "NR" (i.e., Not reported), or "NA" (i.e., Not applicable")

Table 3 Summary of parenting measures

Parenting constructs	Parenting measures	Frequency
Authoritative, Authoritarian, and Permissive Parenting	Parenting Styles and Dimensions Questionnaire (PSDQ)/ Parenting Practices Questionnaire (PPQ) Robinson et al., (1995, 2001)	6
Authoritative, Authoritarian, and Permissive Parenting	Parental Authority Questionnaire Buri (1991)	5
Positive Parenting, Involvement, and Monitoring	Alabama Parenting Questionnaire Elgar et al., (2007); Frick (1991); Shelton et al., (1996)	1
Hostile Parenting	Parenting Scale Arnold et al., (1993)	0
Overprotection and Care	Parental Bonding Instrument Parker et al., (1979)	3
Parental Acceptance and Rejection	Parental Acceptance Rejection Questionnaire Rohner (2004); Rohner et al., (1980)	2
Parental Support, Warmth, Parent–Child Communication, and Responsiveness	Child Rearing Practices Report Block (1965); Chen et al., (2000)	2
Mindfulness Parenting	Interpersonal Mindfulness in Parenting Scale Duncan (2007)	0
Parental Efficacy	Child Adjustment and Parent Efficacy Scale Morawska et al., (2014)	0
Parental Control	Psychological Control Scale Barber (1996)	5
Behavioral and Psychological Control	Parental Control Questionnaire Wang et al., (2007)	4
Parent–Child Communication, Parent–Child Attachment, and Alienation	Inventory of Parent and Peer Attachment Armsden and Greenberg (1987)	4
Parent–Child Relationship, Coercion	Parenting and Family Adjustment Scale Sanders et al., (2014)	0
Parental Control, Conflict, and Parent–Child Communication	Chinese Family Assessment Instrument Shek (2002, 2003); Shek and Ma (2010); Siu and Shek (2005)	1
Coparenting	Coparenting Relationship Scale Feinberg (2003); Feinberg et al., (2012)	0
Conflict and Neglectful Parenting	Conflict Tactics Scale Straus (1979); Straus et al., (1998)	1
Conflict	Asian American Family Conflict Scale Lee et al., (2000)	5
Parenting Stress	Parenting Stress Index/Inventory Abidin (1995)	1
Punitiveness	Coping with Children's Negative Emotions Scale Fabes et al., (2002)	2
Parental Rejection, Warmth, Overprotection	Egna Minnen Bertäffande Uppfostran (my memories of upbringing) Perris et al., (1980)	1

association between parental values and parenting practices (Path 2b to 3b). Five other articles also studied the association between parental beliefs and parenting practices (Path 2c to 3b).

In addition, three articles examined the associations between family climate and parenting cognitions (Path 4). Specifically, one article (Lo et al., 2023) studied the relation between family conflict and parental beliefs (Path 4a to 2c). Another study (Ghosh & Fouad, 2016) examined the association between family conflict and parental values (Path 4a to 2b), as well as the association between family conflict and parental beliefs (Path 4a to 2c). One article (Jensen & Dost-Gözkan, 2015) studied the association between parental beliefs and family conflict or cohesion (Path 2c to 4a and Path 2c to 4b).

Moreover, 15 articles focused on the relation between family climate and parenting behaviors and vice versa (Path 5). Among those articles, two articles (Yoon et al., 2021; W. Zhang et al., 2017) also examined the association between parenting style and parent–child relationship (Path 3a to 4c). Three examined the association between parenting practices and family conflict (Path 3b to 4a) and one other article (Chen et al., 2016) studied the association between parenting practices and parent–child relationship (Path 3b to 4c). Four other articles focused on the indirect association between parenting practices and youth mental health outcomes through parent–child relationship quality and attachment (Path 3b to 4c). One study (Li et al., 2020) also examined the mediating role of parenting practices in the association between parent's educational level and parent–child relationship (Path 3b to 4c). Another article (Yeung, 2016a) studied the association between parenting practices and family functioning (Path 3b to 4d). Two studies (Ghosh & Fouad, 2016; Miao et al., 2018) examined the association between family conflict and parenting practices (Path 4a to 3b) and another (Yeung & Chan, 2016) examined the association between family functioning and parenting practices (Path 4d to 3b).

Finally, four articles studied the association between parent characteristics and family climate (Path 6). Specifically, one study (Hou et al., 2016) examined the relation between parental stress and family conflict (Path 1a to 4a) or parent–child relationship (Path 1a to 4c). Another one (Yasui et al., 2018) focused on the association between parental mental health problems and family conflict (Path 1b to 4a) or parent–child relationship (Path 1b to 4c). Yeung and Chan's (2016) article also studied the relation between parental mental health problems and family functioning (Path 1b to 4d). Lastly, one article (Li et al., 2020) examined the association between parental status and parent–child relationship (Path 1d to 4c).

Overall, studies on Asian parenting in the past decade that include both parent and adolescent reports have predominantly focused on three pathways: the association between Family climate and Parenting behaviors (Path 5), the influence of Parent characteristics on Parenting behaviors (Path 1), and the relationship between Parenting cognitions and Parenting behaviors (Path 3). As such, the connections between Parent characteristics and Parenting cognitions (Path 2), Parenting cognitions and Family climate (Path 4), and Parent characteristics and family climate (Path 6) have received relatively less attention.

Parenting Constructs

Parent Characteristics

Summary Around 30% of the articles (18 out of 60) include parent characteristics as a parenting construct. Among these articles, 16 of the articles examined parent characteristics as a predictor and two examined the mediating role of parent characteristics. Out of the 18 articles, 12 adopted a cross-sectional study design and six were longitudinal studies. Moreover, 13 studies included parents reports without specifying whether it was mothers or fathers, one article included the report from fathers and mothers about parent characteristics, two included adolescents' report, and two only included the mothers' report.

Specific Findings Parent characteristics can influence parenting behaviors (Fig. 1, Path 1) across time, as demonstrated in two longitudinal studies (Hou et al., 2017; Hsieh et al., 2017). For instance, paternal depressive symptoms influence the child's perception of both parents' behaviors, as depressive symptoms (i.e., parental mental health problems) reported by Chinese American fathers were positively related to father-child and mother–child hostility as reported by the child 4 years later (Hou et al., 2017) (Path 1b to 3b). These findings suggest that parental depressive symptoms not only affect the parent but also adolescents' perceptions about the parenting experience, thus, reinforcing the importance of considering both the experiences of adolescents and parents. Moreover, Hsieh's (2017) study showed that parental depression can influence other parenting practices such as parental involvement and support. Specifically, in the first year of the study, Taiwanese children reported lower parental involvement when their mother experienced depressive symptoms sometimes (i.e., symptoms were present for 1 or 2 years of the study), and adolescents also reported a decrease in parental involvement and support when their father experienced chronic depressive symptoms (symptoms were present for 3 or 4 years of the study) across the 4 years of the study (Hsieh et al., 2017). These results may be due to the decrease in responsivity and sensitivity towards that child's needs among parents experiencing depressive symptoms (Hsieh et al., 2017). This decrease in parental involvement, as reported by the child, illustrates how parent characteristics (i.e., parental mental health problems) can have a direct effect on how the child perceived the parenting experience, in this case, perceiving that their parents are less involved due to the parents' emotional status. Another study found that parental burnout, as reported by Chinese mothers, predicted an increase in adolescent's perceived parental hostility over time, which led to an increase in adolescent's internalizing and externalizing problems (Chen et al., 2022). As parental burnout stems from both physical exhaustion and emotional exhaustion linked to parenting responsibilities, caregivers may engage in negative parenting behaviors (i.e., parental hostility) as a dysfunctional coping behavior in response to parental burnout, which exposes the child to negative interactions with their caregiver (Chen et al., 2022). This is another example of how adolescents' reports provide meaningful information on the link between parental characteristics and parenting practices, as their reports reveal the influence of parental burnout on the parents' behavior and ultimately on how the adolescent perceives the parenting experience (i.e., increased parental hostility).

In terms of specific parent characteristic manifestations, most studies included in the review focused on general or culturally universal constructs, relying on measurements developed in Western contexts. However, some culturally specific variables were also identified, such as foreigner stereotypes and bicultural management difficulty as unique types of parental stress in Chinese American parents (Hou et al., 2016).

Parenting Cognitions

Summary Around 23.3% (14 out of 60) of the articles included parenting cognitions (i.e., values, goals, and beliefs) as a parenting construct. Among these 14 articles, 12 studies adopted a cross-sectional study design while two studies adopted a longitudinal approach. Most of the articles (11

out of 14) examined parenting cognitions as a predictor, one examined the role of parental beliefs as an outcome (Lo et al., 2023), and two examined the role of parental beliefs as a predictor and an outcome. Furthermore, three articles included both mothers' and fathers' reports of parenting cognitions, ten articles included parents' reports without specifying which parental figure participated in the study, and one article included only mothers' reports of parenting cognitions.

Specific Findings Studies consistently found that parental socialization goals and expectations can influence parenting styles (Path 2a to 3a, Fig. 1) and parenting practices (Path 2a to 3b, Fig. 1). Specifically, parents' filial piety goals were positively associated with the composite measure of parent and adolescent reports of psychological control (Luebbe et al., 2018). Additionally, children's filial piety served as an important mediator between supportive parenting and the quality of the parent–child relationship (Chen et al., 2016). Chen-Bouck (2019) found that collectivism socialization goals (i.e., educating children to be self-disciplined and obedient to maintain the harmony of the collective) (as reported by mothers) positively predicted authoritative and authoritarian parenting styles and behavioral control as reported by their children (Path 2a to 3a and 3b). However, mothers' endorsement of training beliefs (i.e., high and clear expectations and guidance with parental sacrifice (Chen-Bouck et al., 2019) negatively predicted mothers' reported parental behavioral control (Path 2a to 3b). These findings suggest that the cross-reporter's influence from parents' cognitions to adolescents' perceptions of the parenting experience may be a key factor in further understanding the parenting experience of Asians. The findings also show that Asian parents' goals can impact how Asian parents engage in certain parenting practices (i.e., behavioral control) and in the expression of both authoritarian and authoritative parenting styles, which are usually described in Western literature as parenting styles (e.g., Baumrind, 1971). Additionally, one study found that in low-income Chinese families, paternal expectation for their children's future positively predicted adolescents' perceived maternal control, but was not associated with paternal control (Path 2c to 3b) (Leung & Shek, 2016a).

Finally, one study of Chinese American families focused on the associations between father/mother–child conflicts, as reported by fathers, mothers, and adolescents, and parental beliefs as reported by mothers and fathers, from adolescence to emerging adulthood (Path 4a to 2c) (Lo et al., 2023). Lo et al. (2023) found that mother–child conflicts reported by the youth during adolescence positively predicted mothers' bicultural socialization beliefs for their children in emerging adulthood, suggesting that high levels of conflict around cultural socialization within the family may lead to an increase in mother's desire for children to endorse Chinese and American values and practices. In the parent-report model, higher parent-adolescent conflict predicted higher parental bicultural socialization beliefs at a later time point, in both mother-adolescent and father-adolescent dyads.

Overall, compared to other parenting constructs, the manifestations of parenting cognitions examined in the reviewed articles are more specifically rooted in Asian cultural contexts. For example, concepts such as filial piety, collectivistic socialization goals, and training beliefs uniquely reflect Asian parenting cognitions.

Parenting Behaviors

Summary Around 13.3% (8 out of 60) of articles included parenting styles as a parenting construct. Three articles adopted a longitudinal approach, and the other five studies adopted a cross-sectional approach. Three articles examined parenting styles as a predictor, three articles examined parenting styles as both a predictor and outcome. One study examined parenting styles as an outcome and another one examined it as a mediator. Four studies included parents' reports without specifying which parental figure participated along with adolescents' reports. One study included both mother and adolescent's reports, another article included father, mother and adolescent's reports, and two studies only included adolescent's reports.

Around 78.3% (47 out of 60) of the studies examined parenting practices. Of these, 22 studies examined parenting practices as a predictor, two articles examined parenting practices as both a predictor and an outcome, eight studies examined parenting practices as an outcome, and 15 as a mediator. Most of the articles (31 out of 47) adopted a cross-sectional approach and 16 articles implemented a longitudinal study design. There were 17 studies which included adolescents' reports and parents' reports without specifying the parental figure, six studies only included parents' reports, and eight included only adolescents' reports. One article included only mother reports, and six included both mother and father reports.

Specific Findings For parenting styles, studies have consistently found that they are associated with parent–child relationships or cohesion. For example, Yoon et al., (2021) found that Asian American parents' reports of authoritarian parenting were positively associated with adolescents' reports of bonding to parents. In addition, W. Zhang et al., (2017) identified four parenting styles as profiles: authoritative, authoritarian, average-level undifferentiated, and *strict-affectionate*. Among them, the *strict-affectionate* parenting group was characterized by both high warmth and high harshness, and represented a culture-specific subtype of parenting in Chinese culture. Further, this study found that being in the authoritative profile and high-level undifferentiated profile at Wave 1, 2 or 3 was related to higher levels of mother-ado-

lescent cohesion at Wave 4, compared to the average-level undifferentiated profile, followed by the authoritarian profile.

For parenting practices, studies showed that it can be influenced by different parenting constructs, such as parental characteristics (Path 1), parenting cognitions (Path 3) and family climate (Path 5). Additionally, there was evidence to suggest discrepancy between parents' and adolescents' reports of parenting practices. For instance, Chen et al. (2016) examined the associations between supportive parenting and the quality of parent–child relationships in Taiwanese families (Path 3b to 4c) and found parents' report of supportive parenting had a weaker association with parent–child relationships quality than youth's reports of supportive parenting. Another study showed that parents perceived exerting more control over their children than did the adolescents, and the discrepancy was larger in high school adolescents than middle school adolescents (Chen-Gaddini et al., 2020).

Notably, in some Asian cultures, parenting styles and practices extend beyond those typically derived from Western frameworks, and studies have identified and focused on culture-specific concepts, such as the *strict-affectionate* parenting style (W. Zhang et al., 2017), rather than only adopting general or Western-oriented parenting behavior frameworks.

Family Climate

Summary Among the articles meeting inclusion criteria, 43.3% (26 out of 60) examined family climate (i.e., conflict, cohesion, family functioning, and parent–child relationship) as a parenting construct. Ten of the articles examined family climate as a predictor, two studies examined family climate as both a predictor and outcome, seven articles studied family climate as a mediator, and seven studies included family climate as an outcome. Among the twelve articles, eight studies included reports from parents without specifying the parental figure, four articles included both mother and father reports, and two articles only included the mothers' reports. Moreover, nine articles adopted a cross-sectional study design, three articles adopted a longitudinal approach, and two adopted a mixed methods study design.

Specific Findings Family climate and parenting behaviors can influence each other in different ways (Path 5). Specifically, studies consistently found that family conflict and parental control were associated. For instance, in a study of Chinese families, Chen-Gaddini et al. (2020) found that parents' and adolescents' reports of parental control predicted adolescents' reports of parent–child conflicts (Path 3b to 4a). Those adolescents who reported higher levels of parental control around personal matters (e.g., parents dictating what their child should wear) also reported more parent–child daily conflicts (Chen-Gaddini et al., 2020). However, it is important to note that these conflicts are reported by the adolescent, thus, what is considered to be a "personal issue" is solely from the perspective of the adolescent, and adolescents' reports of conflict could represent perceptions of their parents' lack of respect for their individuality (Chen-Gaddini et al., 2020).

Overall, regarding the specific manifestations of family climate in Asian parenting research, most studies have relied on broader, general concepts of family climate (e.g., family conflict, Jensen & Dost-Gözkan, 2015; Miao et al., 2018) and Western-oriented measurements (e.g., Issues Checklist, IC, Prinz et al., 1979). However, several studies use culturally specific measures like the Asian American Family Conflict Scale to measure acculturative family conflict within Asian American families (e.g., Fung et al., 2017; Lo et al., 2023).

Discussion

Parenting is deeply embedded in cultural contexts (Bornstein, 2012), yet much of the prevailing literature is dominated by Western perspectives. However, it is unclear whether these perspectives can apply to non-Western cultural contexts and how parenting may manifest differently, particularly among Asians. Moreover, as previous parenting-related research is narrow in scope by focusing primarily on parenting influence on child outcomes, there is a need for a systematic review to examine parenting concepts and their underlying antecedents to better understand parenting in Asians. Thus, the current study examined 60 articles on parenting in Asians that included both parents' and adolescents' reports of parenting constructs across four main categories: parental characteristics, parenting cognitions, family climate, and parenting behaviors. The *Parenting in Cultural Context* framework (Fig. 1) utilized these four parenting-related constructs to examine associations among parenting constructs as well as identify culture-specific parenting constructs within families of Asian descent. Results revealed that most studies focused on the associations between parenting behaviors and family climate (Path 5), associations between parental characteristics and parenting behaviors (Path 1), and parenting cognitions with parenting behaviors (Path 3). Furthermore, parental characteristics, parenting cognitions, parenting behaviors, and family climate were examined as predictors, mediators, and outcomes. Culture-specific manifestations were mainly observed in parenting cognitions (e.g., filial piety beliefs and collectivistic socialization goals). Moreover, in some studies, parent gender played an important role, as fathers' reports of parenting appeared to influence adolescents' perceptions of both mothers' and fathers' behaviors. These main findings illustrate how parenting constructs, gender, and multiple reporters can influence the understanding of parenting in Asian adolescents.

Parenting in Cultural Context Framework: Tested Paths

In general, all of paths hypothesized in the *Parenting in Cultural Context* framework (Fig. 1) were found in articles reviewed, which supports the applicability of the framework within Asian culture and suggested the universal associations among constructs across cultures. Specifically, studies identified Path 5 (i.e., parenting behaviors to family climate and vice versa) as the most frequently tested path. These results expand on the Integrative Model of Parenting proposed by Darling and Steinberg (1993), demonstrating that parenting behaviors not only predict youth outcomes but also serve as both predictors and outcomes of other aspects of the parenting experience (e.g., family conflict and parent–child relationship). Specifically, the results highlight the impact of parenting behaviors on family climate, such as by increasing or decreasing family conflict and parent–child positive relationships, which, in turn, can influence adolescent development (e.g., Ding et al., 2022; Wang et al., 2021).

The results also showed that Path 1 (i.e., parent characteristics to parenting behaviors) was the second most tested path. This finding is consistent with the Family Stress Model proposed by Conger et al. (1993), which indicates that parental stressors can influence parenting behaviors. For instance, most studies included in this study found that parents' reports of parental characteristics, such as parental mental health problems and burnout, led to adolescents perceiving a decrease in positive parenting behaviors (e.g., parental involvement and support) and an increase in negative parenting such as hostility (e.g., Chen et al., 2022; Hou et al., 2017; Hsieh et al., 2017). Furthermore, a few articles examined the influence of parental characteristics on parenting behaviors, and ultimately on the adolescents' well-being (e.g. Chen et al., 2022; Yang et al., 2021; Yeung & Chan, 2016). Thus, it could be important for future systematic reviews to continue examining not only the influence between parenting constructs (i.e. parent characteristics to parenting behaviors), but also the impact these associations can have on the overall well-being of the adolescent (e.g., mental health).

Furthermore, the third most examined path was the association between Asian parenting cognitions (i.e., parental goals, values, and beliefs) and parenting behaviors (Path 3). This result is consistent with the Integrative Model of Parenting (Darling & Steinberg, 1993), suggesting that the beliefs, goals, and values that parents have around their role are important factors for understanding how they will behave as parents, particularly in relation to parenting styles and practices. However, there are a limited number of studies examining the associations between parenting cognitions and other constructs, such as parent characteristics (Path 2) and family climate (Path 4), as well as the association between parent characteristics and family climate (Path 6). These findings indicate that these pathways remain underexplored and warrant further investigation to deepen the understanding of the dynamics among parent characteristics, parenting cognitions, and family climate.

Parenting in Cultural Context Framework: Parenting-Related Constructs

Most articles included in this study examined parenting cognitions that are related to cultural values, such as filial piety (the expectation of children's respect and obedience toward parents) and training beliefs (the emphasis on active guidance and discipline by parents). It is possible that culture plays a more important role in shaping such parenting cognitions than other constructs. Indeed, research highlights that Asian parenting cognitions are uniquely shaped by cultural values (e.g., collectivism and interdependence) and ethnotheories—culturally shared beliefs that parents hold about their families, children, and themselves (Harkness & Super, 2020). In fact, Asian cultural values (e.g., collectivism) presented a stronger association with parenting cognitions than is observed in European American parents (e.g., He et al., 2021; Sun & Mulvaney, 2022). These culture-specific beliefs distinguish Asian parenting from its Western counterparts, underscoring the pivotal role of culture in shaping parenting cognitions.

Guided by parenting cognitions, there emerged culturally specific parenting styles and practices. The *strict-affectionate* parenting style, for example, was identified as a culture-specific subtype of parenting style in Chinese culture, to reflect the Chinese traditional education philosophy of *Yanci* (W. Zhang et al., 2017). The *strict-affectionate* parenting means the combination of strictness and warmth or "authoritativeness" and "authoritarianism", which is similar to the *tiger* parenting profile identified in Kim, Wang, et al., (2013). Future research is needed to explore whether this style exists in other Asian cultures such as Japan and Korea. Parental sacrifice is another common socialization behavior in Chinese culture, referring to parents fulfilling the needs and development of their offspring at the expense of their own needs and interests (Leung & Shek, 2016b). While this concept has received some attention in recent years, with existing research primarily focused on its effects on adolescent development (Leung, 2018) further investigation is needed to explore its associated cognitions, and the relationship with parent characteristics, and family climate.

In general, parental characteristics and family climate are often examined using Western constructs and measures (e.g., the Parenting Stress Index for parental stress, Abidin, 1995). However, there are also some culture-specific manifestations related to acculturation, particularly in Asian American families. These parents, often viewed as "perpetual foreigners",

frequently face foreigner stereotype and bicultural management difficulty, which are positively related to parent–child conflicts (Hou et al., 2016). In such families, conflicts may not revolve around typical issues seen in Western families, such as adolescents' pursuit of autonomy, but rather some disagreements about acculturation. Parents and children may have different attitudes towards their more collectivistic heritage culture or the mainstream Western culture, and they may go through acculturative family conflict, which could result in parents' desires for their children to be bicultural in emerging adulthood (Lo et al., 2023). These findings underscore the unique challenges faced by Asian American families, and future research should further explore how acculturation-related factors influence family dynamics.

Parent and Adolescent Reports of Parenting in Adolescence

Studies demonstrated that parent and adolescent reports can lead to different results. For instance, relative to youth's reports of supportive parenting, parents' report of supportive parenting had a weaker association with parent–child relationships quality reported by youth (Chen et al., 2016). Chen et al. (2016) explained that these differences are likely due to the characteristics of reciprocal filial piety (i.e., children attending to parents financially and emotionally out of gratitude for raising them, Yeh, 2003), as young adults who perceive their parents as more supportive may have been motivated by gratitude to repay their parents with care, which benefits the parent–child relationship. Thus, such findings demonstrate the benefits of utilizing children's reports of parenting experiences, as reciprocal filial piety may not have been accurately captured through parents' potentially biased reports of their own supportive behaviors.

Additionally, findings suggested that there existed discrepancy of parental control reported by parents and adolescents. Specifically, the expectation and perceived parental control reported by adolescents were both lower than parents' report, and these discrepancies were larger in older adolescents (Chen-Gaddini et al., 2020). As previously stated, adolescence is a developmental period characterized by greater autonomy-seeking. Therefore, adolescents' reports of parental control may be influenced by their increasing need for independence. Moreover, adolescents' need for independence appeared evident in associations between family conflict and parental control, indicating adolescents who perceived more control over their personal issues tend to have more conflicts with parents (Chen-Gaddini et al., 2020). These findings illustrate that reports from both parents and adolescents are necessary to fully comprehend how parental control may be perceived by different family members, as well as the differences that may arise depending on whether the child is in a developmental phase of early or late adolescence.

One study focused on the disagreement between parents' and adolescents' reports of values, acculturation, and intergenerational conflict, and its impact on disagreement of family influence on careers (Ghosh & Fouad, 2016). Findings showed that the congruence of Asian cultural values between Asian parent–child dyads could predict congruence of informational support, and congruence of intergenerational conflict severity could predict congruence of family expectations (Ghosh & Fouad, 2016). Indeed, previous meta-analysis suggested a small significant correlation between parent- and adolescent-reported parenting (Hou et al., 2020). Prior research has primarily focused on the relation between parent-adolescent discordance in perceptions of parenting and adolescent outcomes (e.g., Leung, 2018), yet few studies have examined the associations among informant discordance of different parenting constructs, which could provide valuable insights into the influence of discrepancies on parenting in family dynamics.

Studies also highlight the importance of parents' gender in Asian parenting, particularly as father's expectations and emotional status may influence adolescents' reports of parenting. For example, evidence showed that fathers' expectations for their children predicted adolescent's reports of maternal control but not paternal control, whereas maternal expectations showed no significant associations with parental control (Leung & Shek, 2016a). Similarly, another study revealed that fathers' depressive symptoms led to higher levels of maternal and paternal hostility reported by adolescents, while mothers' depressive symptoms marginally predicted lower levels of paternal hostility (e.g., Hou et al., 2017). Such findings could be due to the gender roles among Asian families, particularly in Chinese households, where fathers are often the primary authority figure and work outside the home, and mothers carry the burden of monitoring, controlling, and caring for their child (Leung & Shek, 2012; Shek, 2008). Even though fathers may be less present at home, their expectations and emotional states can influence adolescents via mothers' behaviors. On the one hand, as fathers are the head of the household and other family members must obey and show respect (Chao & Tseng, 2002), mothers may exert control to ensure fathers' expectations about their child's future are being met. On the other hand, as the Family Systems Theory (Cox & Paley, 2003) proposes that family members influence each other and Asian families highly value interdependence, it is possible that the father's depressive symptoms influence the mother's depressive symptoms, which decrease parents' responsivity and sensitivity towards adolescents, and in turn, increasing the adolescents' perception of both mother and father hostility (Belsky, 1984). Thus, it is essential for studies to include

both mothers and fathers as reporters, as their roles influence adolescent's perceptions of parenting differently.

Limitations and Future Research Directions

Several limitations of this study must be noted. First, Asians are comprised of immensely diverse groups, yet most studies included in this review focused on Chinese samples, thereby overlooking other major Asian groups, particularly Asian Indians whose population is around 1.4 billion and has already surpassed China's population (Pew Research Center, 2023). Additionally, this review did not code specific populations for residential areas and address cultural differences across Asian populations (e.g., Asians living in Western contexts versus those living in Asia). This review regarded Asians as a group because the cultural roots (e.g., collectivism, filial piety, and conformity to norms) are shared by various Asian societies (Kim et al., 2001). At the same time, it is important to recognize that cultural differences also occur within populations, including different levels and patterns of acculturation and enculturation among Asians living in Western contexts (Kim et al., 2015). Moreover, some of the traditional Asian parenting constructs were proposed many years ago like *guan* (Chao, 1994), and Asians are a heterogeneous group undergoing significant societal changes in the past decade (Chatterjee et al., 2021). As a result, these traditional constructs are evolving rapidly and warrant further research to examine more distinct subgroups within Asian populations to capture the various and evolving nature of parenting in Asians.

Second, due to the limited capability to review articles beyond English, all the studies included in this study were written in English, thus, the current review does not capture the results from studies written in different languages, which could provide more information on how Asian parents and adolescents experience parenting, particularly from countries that are not so well represented in the articles included in this study (e.g., Vietnam, Sri Lanka). Third, studies that were not quantitative were excluded from this study. Qualitative studies could provide a deeper understanding of the parenting experience among Asian families by expanding beyond quantitative research methods to gather information on how parents and adolescents perceive the parenting experience. Fourth, this study did not consider reports from other family members such as siblings, grandparents, aunts, etc. In Asian families, parental values such as filial piety expand to other family members beyond the parents and their children (Jordan, 1998). Therefore, including reports of other parental figures could provide a better understanding of family dynamics. For example, siblings' reports could reveal more information on how parents' behaviors affect their children's perceptions differently (Steinberg, 2000). Fifth, this study did not examine differences across developmental periods of adolescence (e.g., early, middle, and late adolescence), as articles included in this review did not differentiate between them. However, adolescence is characterized by key developmental shifts, including an increase in autonomy and a parallel decrease in relatedness with parents (Buhl, 2008), both of which can influence their perceptions of parenting (Steinberg, 2000, 2005). Therefore, the current review cannot draw conclusions about how parenting may be perceived at different periods of adolescence.

Conclusion

Asian parenting processes are ultimately culturally bound. The present review proposed the *Parenting in Cultural Context* framework informed by influential Western theories of parenting, and reviewed articles published in the past decade. Multiple findings were identified. First, the framework demonstrated strong applicability in Asian cultures, particularly in studies examining how parenting behaviors are linked to parenting cognitions, parent characteristics, and family climate, though other hypothesized paths warrant further investigation. Second, this review summarized culturally relevant parenting constructs (e.g., filial piety, collective socialization goals, training beliefs, and strict-affectionate parenting styles), which are seldom explored within Western research. Additionally, acculturation-related constructs play crucial roles in Asian American families. Third, this review highlighted discrepancies between adolescents' and parents' reports, even between fathers' and mothers' reports, emphasizing the necessity of including multiple members' perspectives during adolescence. Altogether, the reviewed articles illustrate the ways in which research on the parenting of Asian adolescence pushes current understandings of parenting processes into more culturally inclusive spaces. A continued focus on high quality research that examines pathways between parenting constructs and frames research questions within Asian families' lived cultural experiences would continue to be beneficial in understanding the diversity of ways families function.

Appendix

See Table 4.

Table 4 Summaries of the studies included in the review

Author	Demographics of parents (Age, Ethnicity, Gender)	Demographics of children	Parenting measures	Study design	Path tested	Results related to path in Fig. 1	Major findings of the article
Arora et al. (2020)	Indian-born (Mean age = 40.58) and Australian-born mothers (Mean age = 42.88) (including White-Australian mothers with no Indian heritage)	Indian-born adolescents (Mean age = 10.23, 42.3% female) and Australian-born adolescents (Mean age = 9.56, 48% female)	Predictor & Outcome: 1b. Maternal anxiety (mother-reported) 2c. Parental beliefs about anxiety (mother-reported) Predictor & Outcome: 3a. Parenting style (adolescent-reported) - Emotional warmth - Rejection - Overprotection - Anxious rearing	Cross-Sectional	Path 1 (1b.3a) Path 2 (1b.2c) Path 3 (2c.3a)	Path 1 (1b.3a): Maternal anxiety (parental mental health problems) with emotional warmth, rejection, overprotection, anxious rearing (parenting styles) #nonsignificant associations: Within the Indian-born sample, maternal anxiety was not significantly correlated with all parenting styles Path 2 (1b.2c): Maternal anxiety (parental mental health problems) with parental beliefs about anxiety (parenting beliefs) #nonsignificant associations: Within the Indian-born sample, maternal anxiety was not significantly correlated with parental beliefs about anxiety Path 3 (2c.3a): Parental beliefs about anxiety (parental beliefs) with emotional warmth, rejection, overprotection, anxious rearing (parenting styles) $r = .486$: Within the Indian-born sample, parental beliefs about anxiety was positively associated with emotional warmth #nonsignificant associations: Within the Indian-born sample, parental beliefs about anxiety were not associated with overprotection, rejection, and anxious rearing	For anxious rearing (Outcome) and parental negative beliefs about child anxiety (Outcome), Indian-born mothers scored significantly higher than Australian-born mothers ($t(49) = -3.19$, $p = 0.002$; $t(49) = -2.36$, $p = 0.023$), but no other significant differences were found for other parenting variables. Country of birth did not moderate the relationship between parental beliefs/styles and child anxiety Maintenance of Indian culture significantly moderated the association between maternal beliefs of child anxiety and children's reports of child anxiety. At high levels of Indian cultural retention, the association between maternal beliefs of child anxiety and child anxiety was negative. The associations were insignificant at mean levels and low levels of Indian cultural retention Maintenance of Indian culture significantly moderated the relationship between anxious rearing and parent-report of child anxiety. Simple slopes analysis revealed that anxious rearing was not associated with mothers' reports of child anxiety when mothers endorsed moderate levels of Indian culture. Anxious rearing was positively associated with mothers' reports of child anxiety when mothers endorsed low levels of Indian culture, while the association was negative when mothers endorsed high levels of Indian culture Adoption of Australian culture significantly moderated the relationship between emotional warmth and child-reported child anxiety. At mean or high levels of Australian cultural maintenance, mothers' emotional warmth related negatively to child anxiety. At low levels of Australian cultural maintenance, the association was insignificant
Bhan et al. (2019)	Parents of Indian, Ethiopian, Vietnamese, and Peruvian girls (Age not specified, 91.3% female)	Indian, Ethiopian, Vietnamese, and Peruvian girls (followed from ages 8–19)	Predictor: 2c.Parental beliefs on value of education (parent-reported) 3b.Parent–child communication (adolescent-reported) 4c.Parent–child relationship quality (adolescent and parent-reported)	Longitudinal	None	None	In the country-stratified models, only moderate parent–child relationship quality was significantly associated with a reduced probability of childhood marriage (OR = .08, 95% CI = .008–.87) in the Vietnamese sample. The remaining parenting constructs were not associated with childhood marriage within the Vietnamese There was no significant association between parent–child relationship quality/parent–child communication and childhood marriage within Indian samples

Table 4 (continued)

Author	Demographics of parents (Age, Ethnicity, Gender)	Demographics of children	Parenting measures	Study design	Path tested	Results related to path in Fig. 1	Major findings of the article
Chang et al. (2013)	Parents of Taiwanese middle school students (Mean age = 43.8, 69.7% female)	Taiwanese middle school students (Aged 12–15, 51.7% male)	Predictor: 1d. Marital status (parent reported) 1d. parent's educational attainment (parent reported) 4c.Familial relationship (adolescent & parent-reported): -parent–child attachment -parent–child communication -parental monitoring -parental teaching	Cross-Sectional	None	None	Compared with dyads in which parents and adolescents both report no adolescent tobacco use (parent = no, youth = no), increases in youth's reports of family communication were associated with reduced odds of discrepant reports of adolescents' tobacco use (parent = yes, youth = no; OR = .28, 95% CI = .11–.70) as well as concordant reporting of adolescents' tobacco use (parent = yes, youth = yes; OR = .31, 95% CI = .14–.64) Increases in youth's reports of family attachment with parental separation were associated with reduced odds of discrepant reports of adolescents' tobacco use (parent = no, youth = yes; OR = .54, 95% CI = .34–.86). Finally, parental divorce/separation increased the odds of concordant reporting of tobacco use (OR = 4.57, 95% CI = 1.76–11.86) Compared with dyads in which parents and adolescents both report no on adolescent alcohol use (parent = no, youth = no), increases in youth's reports of family communication were associated with reduced odds of discrepant reports of adolescents' tobacco use (parent = yes, youth = no; OR = .70, 95% CI = 0.53–0.91/parent = no, youth = yes; OR = .50, 95% CI = 0.25–0.99) as well as concordant reporting of adolescents' tobacco use (parent = yes, youth = yes; OR = .12, 95% CI = 0.04–0.70)
Chen et al. (2015)	Parents of Taiwanese adolescents (age and gender not specified)	Taiwanese adolescents in grades 3, 5 of elementary school and grade 8 of junior high school (age not specified, 50.3% female)	Predictor: 3b. Parenting practice (adolescent & parent-reported): - Affection and care - Protection 4d.Family functioning (adolescent & parent-reported)	Longitudinal	None	None	Across waves 1 and 2 across student and parent reports, descriptive statistics showed that students with internet addiction reported lower levels of perceived family support and parental affection and care In the multivariate predictive model, protective parenting was associated with decreased odds of later Internet addiction (OR = 0.92, 95% CI = 0.85–1.00). In the multivariate linear mixed model, family functioning was associated with decreased Internet/computer use across study waves (b = -0.38, p < .001)

Table 4 (continued)

Author	Demographics of parents (Age, Ethnicity, Gender)	Demographics of children	Parenting measures	Study design	Path tested	Results related to path in Fig. 1	Major findings of the article
Chen et al. (2016)	Taiwanese parents (Father: Mean age at baseline = 50.27; mother: Mean age at baseline = 47.19)	Taiwanese young adults: For father-child dyads, youth's mean age at baseline was 20.32 years For mother–child dyads, youth's mean age at baseline was 20.25 years	Predictor: 3b. Supportive parenting (adolescent & parent-reported) Mediator: 2c. filial piety (adolescent reported) Outcome: 2c. filial piety (adolescent reported) 4c.Parent–child relationship quality (adolescent reported)	Longitudinal	Path 5 (3b.4c) Path 3 (2c. 3b)	Path 5 (3b.4c): Youth's reports parenting practices with children's reports of parent–child relationship quality Effect Size: $r = .40$: Youth's reports of mother's supportive parenting were positively correlated with children's perceived parent–child relationship $r = .42$: Youth's reports of father's supportive parenting were positively correlated with children's perceived parent–child relationship $\beta = .44$: Youth's reports of mothers' supportive parenting directly and prospectively associated with their perceived parent–child relationship quality $\beta = .30$: Youth's reports of fathers' supportive parenting directly and prospectively associated with their perceived parent–child relationship quality Path 5 (3b.4c): Parents' reports of parenting practices with children's reports of parent–child relationship quality Effect Size: $r = .19$: Parents' reports of mother's supportive parenting were positively correlated with youth's reports of child-parent relationship quality $r = .18$: Parents' reports of father's supportive parenting were positively correlated with youth's reports of child-parent relationship quality #nonsignificant associations: In the SEM model, mothers' and fathers' reports of their supportive parenting were not prospectively associated with youth's reports of child-parent relationship quality Path 3 (2c. 3b): Youth perceived supportive parenting with youth's reciprocal filial piety Effect Size: $\beta = 0.24$ Youth's perceived supportive parenting was positively related to youth's reciprocal filial piety in father–child dyads $\beta = 0.19$ Youth's perceived supportive parenting was positively related to youth's reciprocal filial piety in mother–child dyads	Children perceived supportive parenting was positively related to happiness through reciprocal filial piety (father-child dyads: $z = 2.07$, $p = .04$; mother–child dyads: $z = 2.38$, $p = .02$). Children perceived supportive parenting was positively related to parent–child relationship quality through reciprocal filial piety (father-child dyads: $z = 2.41$, $p = .02$; mother–child dyads: $z = 3.73$, $p < .01$) Children perceived supportive parenting was positively related to family life quality through reciprocal filial piety (father-child dyads: $z = 2.01$, $p = .04$; mother–child dyads: $z = 3.88$, $p < .01$) or authoritarian filial piety (father-child dyads: $z = 2.05$, $p = .04$; mother–child dyads: $z = 2.20$, $p = .03$) Children's perceived supportive parenting was positively related to mother–child relationship quality through authoritarian filial piety ($z = 2.12$, $p = .03$)
Chen et al. (2022)	Chinese mothers living in Huzhou, China (Mean age = 38.50)	Chinese adolescents from a middle school in Huzhou, China (Mean age = 12.89, 48.5% female)	Predictor: 1c. Mother's parental burnout (mother-reported) Mediator: 3b. Maternal hostility (adolescent-reported)	Longitudinal	Path 1 (1c.3b)	Path 1 (1c.3b): Maternal burnout (parental burnout) with maternal hostility (parenting practices) Effect Size: r = .18: T1 maternal burnout was positively correlated with T1 maternal hostility r = .20: T1 maternal burnout was positively correlated with T2 maternal hostility $\beta = .14$: T1 maternal burnout was prospectively associated with T2 maternal hostility	Maternal hostility at wave 2 serves as a mediator between the link of Wave 1 mothers' parental burnout and Wave 3 adolescents' internalizing problems (point estimate = .03, $SE = .01$, $p < .05$, 95% CI = [.005, .049]), as well as the link of mothers' parental burnout at wave 1 and wave 3 adolescents' externalizing problems (point estimate = .02, $SE = .01$, $p < .05$, 95% CI = [.001, .038])

Table 4 (continued)

Author	Demographics of parents (Age, Ethnicity, Gender)	Demographics of children	Parenting measures	Study design	Path tested	Results related to path in Fig. 1	Major findings of the article
Chen-Bouck et al. (2019)	Chinese mothers living in northwestern China (Mean age = 39.14)	Chinese adolescents from one elementary and three middle schools in northwestern China (Mean age = 12.09, 46.2% female)	Predictor: 2a. Mothers' collectivism socialization goals (mother-reported) 2c. Mothers' beliefs on adolescent training (mother-reported) Outcome: 3a.Mother's parenting style (adolescent-reported): - authoritarian parenting - authoritative parenting 3b. Mother's use of behavior control (adolescent-reported) 3b. Mother's use of psychological control (adolescent-reported)	Cross-Sectional	Path 3 (2a.3a, 2a.3b, 2c.3a, 2c.3b)	Path 3 (2a.3a): Mother's collectivism socialization goals (parental goals) with authoritarian parenting style, authoritative parenting style (parenting style) Effect Size: $r = .21$: Mothers' collectivism socialization goals were positively correlated with mothers' authoritarian parenting $r = .24$: Mothers' collectivism socialization goals were positively correlated with mothers' authoritative parenting $\beta = .26$, $SE = .06$, $p < .001$: In the SEM model, mothers' collectivism socialization goals were positively associated with mothers' authoritarian parenting style $\beta = .26$, $SE = .05$, $p < .001$: In the SEM model, mothers' collectivism socialization goals were positively associated with mothers' authoritative parenting style Path 3 (2a.3b): Mother's collectivism socialization goals (parental goals) and behavioral control, psychological control (parenting behaviors) Effect Size: $r = .16$: Mothers' collectivism socialization goals were positively correlated with mothers' behavioral control $\beta = -.11$, $SE = .04$, $p < .05$: In the SEM model, mothers' collectivism socialization goals were negatively associated with mothers' psychological control $\beta = .26$, $SE = .06$, $p < .01$: In the SEM model, mothers' collectivism socialization goals were positively associated with mothers' behavioral control #nonsignificant associations: Mothers' collectivism socialization goals were not significantly correlated with mothers' psychological control Path 3 (2c.3a): Mothers' training beliefs (parental beliefs) with authoritarian parenting style, authoritative parenting style (parenting style) #nonsignificant associations: Mothers' training beliefs were uncorrelated with mothers' authoritative parenting style as well as authoritarian parenting style. In the SEM model, mothers' training beliefs were unassociated with mothers' authoritative parenting style and authoritarian parenting style Path 3 (2c.3b): Mother's training beliefs (parental beliefs) with mother's behavioral control, psychological control (parenting behaviors) Effect Size: $r = -.10$: Mothers' training beliefs were negatively correlated with mothers' behavioral control $\beta = -.12$, $SE = .06$, $p < .05$: In the SEM model, mothers' training beliefs were negatively associated with mothers' behavioral control #nonsignificant associations: Mother's training beliefs were uncorrelated with mother's psychological control. In the SEM model, mothers' training beliefs were unassociated with mothers' psychological control	Youth's age was negatively associated with mothers' use of behavioral control ($\beta = -.29$), authoritative ($\beta = -.23$), and authoritarian parenting ($\beta = -.23$), but not significantly related to mothers' use of psychological control

Table 4 (continued)

Author	Demographics of parents (Age, Ethnicity, Gender)	Demographics of children	Parenting measures	Study design	Path tested	Results related to path in Fig. 1	Major findings of the article
Chen-Gaddini et al. (2020)	Chinese parents in Guangzhou, China (50.1% male, age not specified)	Chinese adolescents from public middle schools (Mean age = 13.9, 56% female), public high schools (Mean age = 16.9, 54% female), and vocational schools (Mean age = 17.0, 53% female) in Guangzhou, China	Predictor: 3b.Parental control (adolescent and parent-reported) - Personal Domain Scale (PDS) -Prudential/Conventional Domain Scale (PCDS) - Overlapping Domain Scale (ODS) Outcome: 4a.parent-adolescent daily conflict (adolescent-reported)	Longitudinal (daily diary)	Path 5 (3b.4a)	Path 5 (3b.4a): Parental control (parental practices) with parent-adolescent daily conflict (family conflict). Effect Size: $F(1, 173) = 6.10$: Adolescents' perceived parental control over the personal domain was significantly related to the number of conflicts, indicating that adolescents who reported perceiving a higher level of parental control over their personal issues tended to have more daily conflicts with their parents #nonsignificant associations: Daily conflicts were not associated with adolescents' perceived parental control over overlapping (ODS) or prudential/conventional issues (PCDS)	Adolescents scored lower than parents on all three subscales for parental control (predictor) (PDS: $F(1, 388) = 14.29$, $p < .001$; ODS: $F(1, 388) = 38.38$, $p < .001$; PCDS: $F(1, 388) = 24.65$, $p < .001$) Child-reported perceived parental control over personal issues (predictor) significantly correlated with children's anxiety ($r = .149$, $p < .05$), interpersonal sensitivity ($r = .231$, $p < .01$), somatization ($r = .165$, $p < .05$), and parent-reported control over overlapping domain issues (predictor) ($r = .205$, $p < .01$). Child-reported control over prudential and conventional issues (predictor) correlated with parent-reported overlapping domain control (predictor) ($r = .256$, $p < .01$). Child-reported control over overlapping domain issues (predictor) correlated with their interpersonal sensitivity ($r = .189$, $p < .01$) and parent-reported overlapping domain control (predictor) ($r = .258$, $p < .01$)
Cheung and Park (2016)	Chinese parents in Hong Kong (age and gender not specified)	Hong Kong Chinese children (Mean age = 15, 47.89% male)	Predictor: 1d. Family structure (adolescent-reported) Mediator & Outcome: 3b. Parental involvement at home and school (parent-reported)	Cross-Sectional	Path 1 (1d.3b)	Path 1 (1d.3b): Family structure (parental status) with parent involvement at home and school (parenting behaviors) Effect Size: OR = 0.47–0.83: Relative to two-parent families, parents who were single-mothers and/or single-fathers displayed less involvement with their children specifically regarding discussing their well-being at school, eating the main meal at home together, spending time talking, and homework help. #nonsignificant associations: parents' involvement at school was not differentiated across family structures. In terms of providing homework help to children, there was no significant difference between single-father and two-parent families. In terms of spending time talking to children, there was no significant difference between single mothers and two-parent families	Compared with two-parent families, youth of single-father families, but not single-mother families, displayed lower reading ($b = -25.36$, $SE = 7.23$, $p < .001$), math ($b = -19.31$, $SE = 7.71$, $p < .05$) and science scores ($b = -22.22$, $SE = 7.62$, $p < .01$) The differences in adolescents' math scores among single-father families, two-parent families, and single-mother families cannot be explained by variance in parental involvement, controlling for household and school characteristics
Cheung et al. (2020)	Chinese parents of adolescents in secondary school (Mean age = 47.74) and university (Mean age = 50.72) (72.4% female)	Chinese adolescents from secondary school (Mean age = 16.03, 57.4% male) and university (Mean age = 20.58, 78.9% female)	Outcome: 4d. Family functioning (adolescent and parent-reported)	Cross-Sectional	None	None	Higher levels of adolescent-reported harmony enhancement was associated with greater family functioning reported by adolescents ($\beta = .29$, $p < .05$), and higher levels of parent-reported harmony enhancement was associated with greater family functioning reported by parents ($\beta = .18$, $p < .05$). Disintegration avoidance was not associated with family functioning reported by adolescents nor parents. The cross-path associations between harmony-seeking behaviors and family functioning were not significant
Choi and Thomas (2015)	Korean parents (age and gender not specified)	Korean children (aged 10–13, gender not specified)	Predictor: 1d. Parental status (parent-reported) Outcome: 3b. Parental neglect (adolescent and parent-reported) - emotional neglect - lack of supervision - medical neglect - educational neglect - personal hygiene neglect - nutritional neglect - drug/alcohol	Cross-Sectional	Path 1 (1d.3b)	Path 1 (1d.3b): Family structure (parental status) to parental neglect (parental behaviors) #nonsignificant associations: single parents did not perceive child neglect distinctly from married parents	The results showed statistically significant differences between Korean parents and children in their ratings of the child neglect statements ($t = -5.386$, $df = 613$, $p < .001$). Compared to parents, children reported higher level of child neglect, specifically within the following domains: medical neglect ($t = -2.967$, $df = 613$, $p < .01$), educational neglect ($t = -3.900$, $df = 613$, $p < .001$), neglect of personal hygiene ($t = -5.413$, $df = 613$, $p < .001$), nutritional neglect ($t = -2.412$, $df = 613$, $p < .05$), and drug/alcohol use ($t = -8.943$, $df = 613$, $p < .001$). Moreover, parents with higher education level reported more child neglect than those who have lower education level ($r = .140$, $p \leq .05$). Additionally, there was no significant difference between mothers' and fathers' reports of child neglect. Similarly, there was no significant difference in reports of child neglect between unemployed and working parents

Table 4 (continued)

Author	Demographics of parents (Age, Ethnicity, Gender)	Demographics of children	Parenting measures	Study design	Path tested	Results related to path in Fig. 1	Major findings of the article
Cui et al. (2021)	Chinese parents (Mean age = 39.22, 80.6% female)	Chinese children (Mean age = 8.54, 58% male)	Predictor: 1b. Parental emotion dysregulation (parent-reported) 1a. Parental stress; difficult child (parent-reported) Outcome: 3b. Parental emotional response (parent-reported) - supportive reactions - unsupportive reactions 3b.parental psychological control (adolescent-reported)	Cross-Sectional	Path 1 (1b.3b) Path 1 (1a.3b)	Path 1 (1b. 3b): Parental emotion dysregulation (parental mental health problems) with unsupportive and supportive parental emotional responses and parental psychological control (parental behaviors) Effect Size: $r = .41$: Parental emotion dysregulation was positively correlated with unsupportive parental emotional responses $\beta = .39$, $p < .01$: In the SEM model, parental emotion dysregulation was positively associated with unsupportive parental emotional responses #nonsignificant associations: Parental emotion dysregulation was not associated with supportive parental emotional responses or psychological control within the correlations and SEM model Path 1 (1a. 3b): Perceived child difficulties (parental beliefs) with unsupportive and supportive parental emotional responses and psychological control (parental behaviors) Effect Size: $r = -.25$: Parents' perceptions of child difficulties were negatively correlated with supportive parental emotional responses $r = .19$: Parents' perceptions of child difficulties were positively correlated with supportive parental emotional responses $\beta = -.23$, $p < .05$: In the SEM model, parents' perceptions of child difficulties were negatively associated with supportive parental emotional responses $b = .36$, $p < .05$: At high levels of emotion dysregulation (+1 SD), the association between perceived child difficulties on parental psychological control was significant and positive #nonsignificant associations: In the SEM model, parents' perceptions of child difficulties were unassociated with unsupportive parental emotional responses. Perceived child difficulties were uncorrelated with psychological control. The main effect of perceived child difficulties on parental psychological control was insignificant. Further, simple slope analyses revealed that at average and low levels of parental emotion dysregulation, the effect of perceived child difficulties on parental psychological control was insignificant	Higher levels of parental beliefs of perceived child difficulties were associated with less parental supportive emotion reactions (outcome) ($\beta = -.23$, $p < .10$) but not associated with unsupportive emotion reactions (outcome) or child-reported parental psychological control (outcome). Parental emotion dysregulation was significantly associated with higher levels of unsupportive emotion reactions (outcome) ($\beta = .39$, $p < .01$). There was a significant interaction between perceived child difficultness and parent emotion dysregulation on psychological control (outcome) ($\beta = .20$, $p < .01$). More specifically, perceived child difficultness significantly predicted more psychological control only among parents who had high levels of emotion dysregulation
Cupp et al. (2013)	Thai mothers (Mean age = 41)	Thai children (Mean age = 13.45, 50% female)	Outcome: 3b. Parent–child communication (adolescent & parent-reported) - general communication - communication about sex	Longitudinal	None	None	After the 6-month intervention of an interactive education program regarding adolescent risky sexual behaviors and substance use, there was an increase in child-reported general parent–child communication ($\beta = .11$, $p < .05$), but not for parent-reported parent–child communication. For parent–child communication about sex, parents reported greater parent–child communication about sex after intervention, but the effect was marginally significant, and there was no impact of the intervention on child-reported parent–child communication about sex at follow-up. In the analyses examining the effects of intervention dosage, the number of completed intervention booklets was related to parent-perceived parent–child communication frequency of sex after 6 months, but this relation was only marginally significant, but the number of completed intervention booklets significantly related to reduced parent-reported parental discomfort discussing sex ($\beta = -.18$, $p < .05$)

Table 4 (continued)

Author	Demographics of parents (Age, Ethnicity, Gender)	Demographics of children	Parenting measures	Study design	Path tested	Results related to path in Fig. 1	Major findings of the article
Ding et al. (2022)	Chinese parents (Mean age = 44.07, 35.81% male)	Chinese high school students (Mean age = 16.28, 55.40% male)	Predictor: 3b. Parental responses to adolescents negative emotions (parent-reported) - Emotion-focused response - problem-focused response - expression encouragement - minimization - distress - punitive response Mediator: 4c. Perceived relationship quality (adolescent-reported)	Cross-Sectional	Path 5 (3b. 4c)	Path 5 (3b. 4c): Parents' emotion-focused response, problem-focused response, expression encouragement, minimization response, punitive response, and parental distress (parenting practices) with perceived relationship quality (parent–child relationship) Effect Size: $r = .45$: Emotion-focused response was positively correlated with perceived relationship quality $r = .45$: Problem-focused response was positively correlated with perceived relationship quality $r = .39$: Expression encouragement was positively correlated with perceived relationship quality $r = .11$: Minimization response was positively correlated with perceived relationship quality $r = -.33$: Punitive response was negatively correlated with perceived relationship quality $r = -.28$: Parental distress was negatively correlated with perceived relationship quality $\beta = .45$, $SE = .01$, $p < .001$: In the mediation model, emotion-focused response was positively associated with perceived relationship quality $\beta = .45$, $SE = .01$, $p < .001$: In the mediation model, problem-focused response was positively associated with perceived relationship quality $\beta = .40$, $SE = .01$, $p < .001$: Expression encouragement was positively correlated with perceived relationship quality $\beta = .11$, $SE = .02$, $p < .001$: Minimization response was positively associated with perceived relationship quality $\beta = -.33$, $SE = .02$, $p < .001$: Punitive response was negatively associated with perceived relationship quality $\beta = -.28$, $SE = .02$, $p < .001$: Parental distress was negatively associated with perceived relationship quality	The results revealed that for six types of parental responses to negative emotions, adolescents' internalizing problems and perceived relationship quality mediated their associations with adolescents' suicidal ideation. For example, perceived relationship quality mediated the association between expressive encouragement and adolescents' suicidal ideation ($b = -.07$, $SE = .02$, $p < .001$). Additionally, expressive suppression significantly mediated the relationship between minimization and suicidal ideation. Moreover, expressive suppression mediated the associations between parents' non-supportive responses (i.e., punitive response and parental distress) and suicidal ideation. For example, expressive suppression mediated the association between punitive responses and adolescents' suicidal ideation ($b = .02$, $SE = .01$, $p < .001$)
French et al. (2013)	Indonesian parents (Mean age not specified, 19.6% male)	Indonesian Muslim adolescents (Mean age = 14.91, 43.2% male)	Predictor: 4c.Parental warmth (adolescent & parent-reported)	Cross-Sectional	None	None	Parental warmth significantly moderated the effect of parental religiosity on adolescents' religiosity ($\beta = 0.25$, $p < 0.01$). The effect of parental religiosity on adolescents' religiosity was significant at all levels of parental warmth but was the strongest at high levels of warmth ($\beta = .74$, $p < .001$), relative to medium ($\beta = .49$, $p < .001$) and low ($\beta = .24$, $p < .001$) levels of warmth Parental warmth and parent religiosity were associated with higher levels of adolescent prosocial behaviors through adolescent religiosity (parent religiosity: indirect effect = 0.11, 95% CI = [0.03, 0.19]; parental warmth: indirect effect = 0.22, 95% CI = [0.03, 0.41])

Table 4 (continued)

Author	Demographics of parents (Age, Ethnicity, Gender)	Demographics of children	Parenting measures	Study design	Path tested	Results related to path in Fig. 1	Major findings of the article
Fung et al. (2017)	Chinese mothers of children in Beijing (Mean age = 39.27), Hong Kong (Mean age = 41.42) and Los Angeles (Mean age = 43.02)	Chinese children from Beijing (Mean age = 9.88, 49.66% female), Hong Kong (Mean age = 9.65, 50.34% female), and Los Angeles (Mean age = 9.61, 56.25% female)	Predictor & Outcome: 3b. Mothers' psychological control (parent-reported) 3b. Mothers' autonomy support (parent-reported) 3b. Perceived maternal acceptance (adolescent reported) Predictor & Outcome: 4a. Family conflict (adolescent reported)	Cross-Sectional	Path 5 (3b.4a)	Path 5 (3b.4a): Mothers' psychological control (parenting practices) with family conflict. Effect Size: $r = .27–.40$: In the Beijing and Los Angeles sample, mothers' psychological control was positively correlated with family conflict $\beta = .30–.43$, $p < .01$: In the path analysis, multigroup analyses showed that the path linking psychological control and family conflict significantly varied across the study site, as the association was positive in the Beijing and Los Angeles samples #nonsignificant associations: In the Hong Kong sample, mothers' psychological control was not significantly associated with family conflict within the correlations and path analysis Path 5 (3b.4a): Perceived maternal acceptance with family conflict Effect Size: $r = -.31$, $\beta = -.20$: In the Los Angeles sample, maternal acceptance was negatively correlated with family conflict $r = .23$: $\beta = .23$: In the Hong Kong sample, maternal acceptance was negatively correlated with family conflict #nonsignificant associations: In Beijing sample, maternal acceptance was not associated with family conflict in the correlation and path analyses Path 5 (3b.4a): Mothers' autonomy support (parenting behaviors) with family conflict Effect Size: $r = -.20$: In Los Angeles sample, mothers' autonomy support was negatively correlated with family conflict $\beta = .18$, $p < .05$: In the path analysis, mothers' autonomy support was positively associated with family conflict in the Hong Kong sample #nonsignificant associations: In the Hong Kong and Beijing samples, mothers' autonomy support was uncorrelated with family conflict. In the path analysis, mothers' autonomy support was unassociated with family conflict in the Beijing and Los Angeles samples	Higher levels of psychological control (predictor) were related to more family conflict (outcome) in Beijing ($\beta = 0.30$, $p < 0.01$) and Los Angeles samples ($\beta = 0.43$, $p < 0.001$), as well as lower parental acceptance (outcome) in the Los Angeles sample ($\beta = -0.26$, $p < 0.01$). Higher levels of autonomy support (predictor) were related to more parental acceptance (outcome) in Hong Kong ($\beta = 0.30$, $p < 0.01$) and Los Angeles samples ($\beta = 0.26$, $p < 0.01$), as well as more family conflict (outcome) in Hong Kong ($\beta = 0.18$, $p < 0.05$) Hong Kong mothers reported a higher level of psychological control than Beijing mothers ($t = -3.55$, $p < 0.001$), followed by Los Angeles mothers ($t = 2.55$, $p < 0.01$). Beijing mothers reported more Autonomy Support than Hong Kong mothers ($t = 3.29$, $p < 0.001$). Los Angeles adolescents reported significantly lower Family Conflict and higher Child Acceptance compared to Beijing adolescents ($t = 3.78$, $p < 0.001$, and $t = -3.03$, $p < 0.01$, respectively). Compared with Hong Kong adolescents, Los Angeles children reported less Family Conflict ($t = 4.73$, $p < 0.001$), but there was no significant difference in perceptions of Child Acceptance across samples. The sample differences in psychological control and autonomy support can be partly explained by mothers' endorsement of new values and knowledge related to social changes
Ghosh and Fouad (2016)	Asian and Asian-American parents (Mean age = 53.55, 50% male)	Asian and Asian-American college students (Mean age = 21.5, 56.67% male)	Predictor: 4a.intergenerational conflict (adolescent & parent-reported) - child beliefs on major/career-related values - parent beliefs on major/career-related values - frequency - severity 2b. Asian cultural values (adolescent & parent-reported) Outcome: Family Influence (subscales specific to careers)(adolescent & parent-reported) 3b. informational support 3b. financial support 2b. values/ beliefs 2c. family expectations	Cross-Sectional	Path 3 (2b. 3b) Path 4 (4a. 2b) (4a. 2c) Path 5 (4a. 3b)	Path 3 (2b. 3b): Congruence of Asian cultural values (parental values) with congruence of informational support (parenting practices) $b = .50$, $SE = .24$, $p = .048$: Congruence of Asian cultural values was positively associated with the congruence of informational support Path 4 (4a. 2b): Congruence of intergenerational conflict (family conflict) with congruence of values/beliefs (parental values) #nonsignificant associations: Congruence of intergenerational conflicts was not associated with congruence of values/beliefs Path 4 (4a. 2c): Congruence of intergenerational conflict (family conflict) with congruence of family expectations (parental beliefs) Effect Size: $b = .30$, $SE = .13$, $p = .03$: Greater disagreement surrounding Asian parents' perceptions of conflicts on general and major/career-related issues within dyads was associated with more disagreement on family expectations on careers among dyads $b = .39$, $SE = .10$, $p = .001$: Greater severity of general and major/career-related conflicts within dyads were associated with more disagreement on family expectations on careers within dyads Path 5 (4a. 3b): Congruence of intergenerational conflict (family conflict) with congruence of informational support (parenting practices) #nonsignificant association: Congruence of intergenerational conflicts was not associated with congruence in informational support	Greater congruence in Asian parent–child dyads regarding endorsing Asian cultural values was related to more congruence within dyads in their perceptions of informational support on careers ($t = 2.104$, $p < .05$) Greater congruence of values, acculturation, and intergenerational conflict (predictor) was related to a greater agreement on family expectations on careers among the dyads ($R^2 = .560$, $F(8, 21) = 3.339$, $p < .05$) For values and beliefs (outcome), congruence of the values, acculturation subscales, and intergenerational conflict (predictor) did not relate to variability in values and beliefs

Table 4 (continued)

Author	Demographics of parents (Age, Ethnicity, Gender)	Demographics of children	Parenting measures	Study design	Path tested	Results related to path in Fig. 1	Major findings of the article
Heimpel et al. (2018)	Chinese parents (age and gender not specified)	Chinese children (Mean Age = 10, 52.6% male)	Predictor: 3b. Behavioral control (parent-reported) 3b. Parental responsiveness (adolescent-reported) 2c. Parental perceived responsibility (parent-reported)	Cross-Sectional	Path 3: (2c.3b)	Path 3 (2c.3b): Parental perceived responsibility (parental beliefs) with behavioral control, parental responsiveness (parenting practices) #nonsignificant associations: parental perceived responsibility was uncorrelated with behavioral control and parental responsiveness	For child-reported self-regulation, perceived responsibility ($\beta = -.13$, $t = -2.71$, $p = .007$) was the only significant predictor among the three parental predictors. For parent-reported self-regulation, perceived responsibility ($\beta = -.24$, $t = -4.75$, $p < .001$) and parental responsiveness ($\beta = .13$, $t = 2.28$, $p = .023$) were significant predictors
Hou et al. (2016)	Chinese American parents (age and gender percentage not specified)	Chinese American adolescents (Mean age = 17.04 at Wave 2, 58% female)	Predictor: 1a.Parental stress (parent-reported) - foreigner stereotype - bicultural management difficulty Mediator: 4a. Interparental conflict (adolescent-reported) 4a. Parent–child conflict (adolescent-reported) 4c. Parent–child alienation (adolescent-reported)	Longitudinal	Path 6 (1a. 4a). (1a. 4c)	Path 6 (1a. 4a) Perpetual foreigner stereotype with interparental conflict and parent–child conflict $r = .16$, $\beta = .15$: perpetual foreigner stereotype was positively associated with interparental conflict for mother-adolescent dyads at wave 2 $r = .20$, $\beta = .16$: perpetual foreigner stereotype was positively associated with parent–child conflict for mother-adolescent dyads at wave 2 $r = .23$, $\beta = .19$: perpetual foreigner stereotype was positively associated with parent–child conflict for father-adolescent dyads at wave 2 Path 6 (1a. 4a) Bicultural management difficulty with interparental conflict and parent–child conflict $r = .17$, $\beta = .15$: bicultural management difficulty was positively associated with interparental conflict for mother-adolescent dyads at wave 2 $r = .12$: bicultural management difficulty was positively associated with parent–child conflict for mother-adolescent dyads at wave 2 $r = .24$, $\beta = .20$: bicultural management difficulty was positively associated with parent–child conflict for father-adolescent dyads at wave 2 Path 6 (1a. 4c) Perpetual foreigner stereotype and bicultural management difficulty with parent–child alienation $r = .19$: bicultural management difficulty was positively associated with parent–child alienation for father-adolescent dyads at wave 2 #nonsignificant: there were no significant association between perpetual foreigner stereotype and parent–child alienation in all samples and between bicultural management difficulty and parent–child alienation for mother-adolescent dyads	In both mother-adolescent and father-adolescent dyads, there were significant direct effects of parental acculturative stressors on parent–child conflict. For mother-adolescent dyads, there was a significant indirect effect of parental acculturative stressors on parent–child conflict via interparental conflict. In turn, both interparental and parent–child conflict related to increases in the sense of alienation between parents and adolescents, which then led to more depressive symptoms, more delinquent behaviors, and lower academic performance in adolescents, for mother–adolescent and father–adolescent dyads
Hou et al. (2017)	Chinese and Chinese American mothers (Mean age = 44.08) and fathers (Mean age = 47.93)	Chinese American adolescents (Mean age = 13.03, 54% female at Wave 1)	Mediator: 1b.Parental depressive symptoms (father and mother-reported) 3b.Parent–child Hostility (adolescent-reported)	Longitudinal	Path 1 (1b.3b)	Path 1 (1b.3b): Parental depressive symptoms reported by fathers and mothers (parental mental health) with parental hostility reported by adolescents (parenting practices) Effect size: $\beta = 0.19$, $r = .14$: paternal depression was positively associated with father-child hostility $\beta = 0.18$, $r = .19$: paternal depression was positively correlated with mother–child hostility #nonsignificant associations: maternal depression was not significant associated with father-child or mother–child hostility	Wave 1 paternal perceived discrimination was related to higher levels of adolescents' depressive symptoms (indirect effect = .015, 95% CI [.003, .026]) and delinquent behaviors (indirect effect = .010, 95% CI [.001, .019]) at Wave 2 through Wave 1 paternal depressive symptoms to Wave 2 maternal hostility toward children

Table 4 (continued)

Author	Demographics of parents (Age, Ethnicity, Gender)	Demographics of children	Parenting measures	Study design	Path tested	Results related to path in Fig. 1	Major findings of the article
Hsieh et al. (2017)	Taiwanese parents (Age unspecified, 52.9% female)	Taiwanese public school children (in grade one and four at Wave 1, 51.5% male)	Predictor: 1b. Parental depressive symptoms (parent-reported) Outcome: 3b. Parenting practice (adolescent-reported) - Parental support - Involvement - Harsh control	Longitudinal	Path 1 (1b.3b)	Path 1 (1b.3b): parental depressive symptoms (parental mental health) with parenting practices Effect sizes: *r* ranges from −.07 to −.05 for the older cohort: maternal depressive symptoms were negatively correlated with parental involvement across time *r* = −.04 or −.05 for the older cohort: maternal depressive symptoms were negatively correlated with parental support from year 2 to year 4 *r* = .04 for the younger cohort: maternal depressive symptoms were positively correlated with harsh control at year 2 *r* = .06 or .08 for the older cohort: maternal depressive symptoms were positively correlated with harsh control from year 2 to year 4 *r* = −.05 for the younger cohort: paternal depressive symptoms were negatively correlated with parental involvement at year 3 *r* = −.04 or −.05 for the older cohort: paternal depressive symptoms were negatively correlated with parental involvement at year 1 or year 4 *r* = −.05, −.04 or .05 for the older cohort: paternal depressive symptoms were significantly correlated with parental support at years 1 and 3 *r* = .05 for the older cohort: paternal depressive symptoms were positively related to harsh control at year 4 #nonsignificant association: for younger cohort: maternal depressive symptoms were not significantly associated with parental involvement across time; maternal depressive symptoms were not significantly associated with parental support across time; paternal depressive symptoms were not significantly associated with parental support across time; paternal depressive symptoms were not significantly associated with harsh control across time	For parental involvement (outcome), first-grade adolescents reported less than fourth-grade adolescents. In the first-grade cohort, adolescent-reported parental involvement increased over the year, whereas it decreased in the fourth-grade cohort. Females reported higher levels of parental involvement than males at the beginning, but this did not change over the year; however, males reported an increase in parental involvement over the year. Parental education level was positively associated with parental involvement at the beginning, but not with changes across the years. Adolescents with sometimes depressed mothers (predictor) reported less parental involvement (outcome) initially. Adolescents with chronically depressed fathers (predictor) reported decreased involvement over the years. Marital conflict predicted decreased involvement across the years. Years of marriage predicted more involvement at the beginning For parental support (outcome), first graders reported less than fourth graders, but support increased for first graders and decreased for fourth graders. At the beginning, girls reported higher levels of parental support than boys. However, over time, boys reported a slight increase in parental support, while girls reported a slight decrease. Adolescents with more educated parents perceived more support in the first year, with family income also predicting more support. Support decreased over the years in families with chronically depressed fathers (predictor). Marital conflict led to decreased support over time For harsh control (outcome), fourth graders reported more than first graders, but this decreased over the years for fourth graders and stayed the same for first graders. Boys reported more harsh control than girls initially, but harsh control decreased for boys and slightly increased for girls over time. More educated parents used more harsh control in the first year. Marital conflict predicted more harsh control initially, while longer marriages predicted less. Maternal and paternal depression (predictor) did not affect the initial status or changes in harsh control

Table 4 (continued)

Author	Demographics of parents (Age, Ethnicity, Gender)	Demographics of children	Parenting measures	Study design	Path tested	Results related to path in Fig. 1	Major findings of the article
Jensen and Dost-Gözkan (2015)	Indian parents (Mean age = 45.22, 80% female) in the U.S	Asian Indian (Mean age = 15.86, 58% female)	Predictor: 2c. Endorsement of parental authority (adolescent and parent-reported) 2c. Expectations of behavioral autonomy (adolescent and parent-reported) Outcome: 4a. Parent-adolescent conflict (adolescent and parent-reported) 4b. Parent-adolescent cohesion (adolescent and parent-reported)	Cross-Sectional	Path 4 (2c. 4a) (2c. 4b)	Path 4 (4a. 2c): parental-adolescent conflict with endorsement of parental authority (parental beliefs) in Asian Indian families $r = .57$, $p < .001$, parent-adolescent conflict reported by parents was positively associated with parental endorsement of parental authority #nonsignificant associations: parent-adolescent conflict reported by adolescents was not significantly associated with endorsement of parental authority Path 4 (4a. 2c): parental-adolescent conflict with expectations of behavioral autonomy (parental beliefs) in Asian Indian families #nonsignificant associations: parent-adolescent conflict was not associated with expectations of behavioral autonomy Path 4 (4b. 2c): parental-adolescent cohesion with endorsement of parental authority (parental beliefs) in Asian Indian families $r = .45$, $p < .001$, parent-adolescent cohesion reported by adolescents was positively associated with endorsement of parental authority reported by adolescents #nonsignificant associations: cohesion reported by parents was not significantly associated with endorsement of parental authority Path 4 (4a. 2c): parental-adolescent cohesion with expectations of behavioral autonomy (parental beliefs) in Asian Indian families $r = .29$, $p < .05$, parent-adolescent cohesion reported by adolescents was positively associated with expectations of behavioral autonomy reported by adolescents #nonsignificant associations: parent-adolescent cohesion reported by parents was not associated with expectations of behavioral autonomy	Asian-Indian parents expected a later age for autonomy than Salvadorans ($F(1, 91) = 6.52$, $p = .012$). For dyads with parents endorsing authority more than adolescents, the discrepancy in Salvadoran dyads is significantly larger than in Asian Indian ones ($F(1, 91) = 4.77$, $p = .034$) In those Asian Indian families where parents reported greater authority relative to adolescents, this discrepancy was associated with heightened parent-reported conflict ($\beta = .36$, $p < .05$) and reductions in adolescent-reported cohesion ($\beta = -.40$, $p < .01$). When adolescents expected autonomy at older ages relative to parents, this discrepancy was negatively associated with parent-reported conflict ($\beta = .37$, $p < .05$). For Salvadoran families, there was no significant results
Kim and Chen et al. (2013)	Foreign-born Chinese parents living in the US (Age not specified)	Chinese American children in the US (including U.S.-born and foreign-born) (Mean age = 13.03, 54.4% female at Wave 1)	Mediator: 3b.Parenting practice (mother and father-reported) - parental warmth - parental monitoring - inductive reasoning 4c.Parent–child alienation (adolescent, mother, and father-reported)	Longitudinal	Path 5 (3b. 4c)	Path 5 (3b. 4c): a latent variable of parenting based on warmth, inductive thinking, and monitoring (parenting practice) with parent–child alienation Effect size: $r = -.31$, $\beta = -.31$ or $-.32$: paternal parenting at Wave 1 was negatively correlated with Wave 1 father-adolescent alienation $r = -.15$, $\beta = .15$ or $.19$: paternal parenting at Wave 1 was negatively correlated with Wave 2 father-adolescent alienation $r = -.30$, $\beta = -.34$: paternal parenting at Wave 2 was negatively correlated with Wave 2 father-adolescent alienation $r = -.36$, $\beta = -.36$: maternal parenting at Wave 1 was negatively correlated with Wave 1 mother-adolescent alienation $r = -.30$, β not significant: maternal parenting at Wave 1 was negatively correlated with Wave 2 mother-adolescent alienation $r = -.33$, $\beta = -.17$ or $-.18$: maternal parenting at Wave 2 was negatively correlated with Wave 1 mother-adolescent alienation $r = -.37$, $\beta = -.23$: maternal parenting at Wave 2 was negatively correlated with Wave 2 mother-adolescent alienation #nonsignificant association: paternal parenting at Wave 1 was not significantly associated with Wave 2 father-adolescent alienation	During early adolescence, father-child American orientation discrepancy was associated with less positive paternal parenting practices, leading to higher levels of father-child alienation, which was associated with more depressive symptoms (indirect effect = .011, $p = .024$ for the cross-sectional association; indirect effect = .003, $p = .038$ for longitudinal association) and lower academic performance (indirect effect = −.009, $p = .044$ for cross-sectional association; indirect effect = −.006, $p = .044$ for longitudinal association) in Chinese American adolescents. The indirect effects were not significant for mothers

Table 4 (continued)

Author	Demographics of parents (Age, Ethnicity, Gender)	Demographics of children	Parenting measures	Study design	Path tested	Results related to path in Fig. 1	Major findings of the article
Kim and Wang et al. (2013)	Chinese American mothers and fathers (including foreign-born and U.S.-born) (Age not specified)	Chinese American children (including foreign-born and U.S.-born)(Mean age = 13.03, 54% female at Wave 1)	Predictor: 3b. Parenting practice (adolescent, mother, and father-reported) - Parental warmth - Inductive reasoning - Parental monitoring - Parental hostility - Democratic parenting - Punitive parenting - Psychological control - Shaming Outcome: 4c. Parent–child alienation (adolescent- & parent-reported))	Longitudinal	None	None	Four profiles based on parenting practices were identified at each wave, including supportive parenting (40%-77%), tiger parenting (14%-28%), easygoing parenting (11%-45%), and harsh parenting (5%-13%) Adolescents in the supportive parenting group (predictor) tend to have the highest GPAs, lowest academic pressure, lowest depressive symptoms, fewest feelings of parent-adolescent alienation, and a stronger sense of family obligation Adolescents in the tiger parenting group reported relatively higher levels of academic pressure, depressive symptoms, parent–child alienation (outcome), and higher family obligations Adolescents in the harsh parenting group reported relatively higher levels of depressive symptoms, parent–child alienation (outcome), and lower levels of family obligation
Kim et al. (2014)	Chinese American parents (including foreign born and U.S. born) living in the US (Age not specified)	Chinese American adolescents (Mean age = 17.1, 54% female)	4a. Parent–child conflict (adolescent, mother, and father-reported)	Cross-Sectional	None	None	Factorial and validity invariance were established for the language brokering scale among Chinese American families. Negative experiences in language brokering (i.e., burden, disrespect, role reversal, negative feelings) were positively related to parent–child conflict
Kim et al. (2017)	Chinese and Chinese American mothers in Beijing (Mean age = 39.54), Hong Kong (Mean age = 40.41), and Los Angeles (Mean age = 42.43)	Chinese and Chinese American children from Beijing (Mean age = 9.87, 49.66% female), Hong Kong (Mean age = 9.65, 50.34% female) and Los Angeles (Mean age = 9.61, 46.02% female)	Predictor: 3b. parenting practices (adolescent and mother-reported) - Psychological control - Autonomy support	Cross-Sectional	None	None	Mother-reported psychological control (predictor) was significantly associated with child-report of psychological control in Beijing ($\beta = .38$, $p < .01$) and Los Angeles ($\beta = .40$, $p < .001$) samples. Maternal psychological control (predictor) reported by children was positively associated with the child incremental theory of intelligence reported by children in Beijing ($\beta = .37$, $p < .001$), Hong Kong ($\beta = .17$, $p < .05$), and Los Angeles ($\beta = .26$, $p < .01$) Mother-reported autonomy support (predictor) was significantly associated with child-report of autonomy support (predictor) in Beijing ($\beta = .28$, $p < .05$), Hong Kong ($\beta = .25$, $p < .01$) and Los Angeles ($\beta = .31$, $p < .01$). Maternal autonomy support (predictor) reported by children was positively associated with child incremental theory of intelligence reported by children in Hong Kong only ($\beta = .41$, $p < .001$) Mother report of psychological control (predictor) was significantly associated with child-report of autonomy support (predictor) in Los Angeles ($\beta = -.32$, $p < .01$), mother-reported autonomy support (predictor) in Beijing ($\beta = -.36$, $p < .001$), and mother-reported autonomy support (predictor) in Hong Kong ($\beta = .22$, $p < .01$). Child-report of psychological control (predictor) was positively correlated with child-report of autonomy support (predictor) in Hong Kong ($\beta = .23$, $p < .05$)

Table 4 (continued)

Author	Demographics of parents (Age, Ethnicity, Gender)	Demographics of children	Parenting measures	Study design	Path tested	Results related to path in Fig. 1	Major findings of the article
E. H. Lee et et al., (2013)	Parents of second-grade Chinese adolescents in Beijing (age not specified)	Second-grade Chinese children from Beijing (Mean age = 7.7, 55.5% female at Wave 1; Mean age = 11.6 at Wave 2)	Predictor and outcome (cross-lagged model): 3a. Parenting style (adolescent and parent-reported at Wave 2; parent-report at Wave 1) - Authoritarian parenting - Authoritative parenting	Longitudinal	None	None	Parent and child-reported authoritative parenting at W2 were positively correlated ($r = .35$ $p < .001$), as well as parent and child-reported authoritarian parenting ($r = .33$, $p < .001$) In the model for effortful control, W1 authoritarian parenting was negatively associated with W2 effortful control ($\beta = -.11$, $p < .001$), and W1 effortful control was negatively associated with W2 authoritarian parenting ($\beta = -.30$, $p < .05$). There were no significant cross-wave associations between anger/frustration and authoritative parenting In the model for anger/frustration reported by parents, W1 authoritarian parenting positively and significantly predicted W2 anger/frustration (parent report) ($\beta = .15$, $p < .01$). W1 anger/frustration (parent report) significantly predicted W2 authoritarian parenting ($\beta = .15$, $p < .05$). There were no significant cross-wave associations between anger/frustration and authoritative parenting In the model for anger/frustration reported by teachers, W1 authoritarian parenting was significantly associated with W2 anger/frustration (teacher report) ($\beta = .16$, $p < .01$). W1 anger/frustration (teacher report) was not significantly associated with W2 authoritarian parenting. There were also no significant cross-wave associations between anger/frustration and authoritative parenting
S. J. Lee et al., (2013)	Thai parents of HIV-infected adolescents, age and gender not specified	HIV-infected Thai adolescents (Mean age = 13.7, 55% female)	Predictor: 1b. Parental depression (parent-reported) Mediator: 3b. Parenting practice (adolescent-reported) - Care - Overprotection	Cross-Sectional	Path 1 (1b.3b)	Path 1 (1b.3b) # Chinese children fromal depression was not significantly associated with adolescent-reported parental caring or overprotection	Adolescents with higher stress or lower self-esteem reported less caring and more overprotective parenting. Adolescents reported more caring parenting also showed higher levels of emotional intelligence. Female adolescents reported higher levels of caring parenting than males ($\beta = 1.51$, $p = 0.026$)
Leung and Shek (2013)	Chinese parents in Hong Kong (father mean age = 49.94; mother mean age = 42.18)	Chinese adolescents from Hong Kong (Mean age = 13.56, 51.3% female)	Predictor: 4d.Family functioning (adolescent, mother, and father reported) - Mutuality - Communication - Conflict and harmony - Parental concern - Parental control	Cross-Sectional	None	None	Discrepancies between fathers' and adolescents' reports of family functioning (predictor) were negatively associated with adolescents' achievement motivation ($\beta = -.15$, $p < .05$) and negatively related to youth positive development reported by adolescents ($\beta = -.25$, $p < .001$) Discrepancies between mother-reported and adolescent-reported family functioning (predictor) were negatively associated with positive youth development reported by adolescents ($\beta = -.15$, $p < .05$), but they were not associated with adolescent-reported achievement motivation
Leung and Shek (2014)	Chinese parents in Hong Kong (father mean age = 49.94; mother mean age = 42.18)	Chinese adolescents from Hong Kong (Mean age = 13.56, 51.3% female)	Predictor: 3a. Parenting style (adolescent, mother, and father-reported) - Responsiveness - Demandingness 3b. Parental control (adolescent, mother, and father-reported)	Cross-Sectional	None	None	Father-child discrepancies in paternal responsiveness were negatively associated with adolescent achievement motivation ($\beta = -.15$, $p < .05$) Mother–child discrepancies in perceived maternal control were negatively associated with adolescent achievement motivation ($\beta = -.16$, $p < .01$) Mother–child discrepancies in perceived maternal responsiveness were negatively associated with adolescent positive psychological competence ($\beta = -.15$; $p < .05$)

Table 4 (continued)

Author	Demographics of parents (Age, Ethnicity, Gender)	Demographics of children	Parenting measures	Study design	Path tested	Results related to path in Fig. 1	Major findings of the article
Leung and Shek (2016a, 2016b)	Chinese parents in Hong Kong (father mean age = 49.94; mother mean age = 42.18)	Chinese adolescents from Hong Kong (Mean age = 13.56, 51.3% female)	Predictor: 2c. Parental beliefs (father and mother-reported) - Parental beliefs about adversity - Parental attributions of success/failure - Parental expectation on children's future Mediator: 3b.Parental control (adolescent-reported)	Cross-Sectional	Path 3 (2c.3b)	Path 3 (2c. 3b): parental beliefs with parental control (parenting practices) Effect size: $r = 0.21$, β = .22: parental expectations of children's future reported by parents were positively correlated with maternal control parenting reported by adolescents #nonsignificant associations: parental beliefs (i.e., beliefs about adversity, parental attributions of success/failure, and expectations of children's future) reported by parents were not associated with perceived paternal control reported by adolescents; beliefs about adversity or parental attributions of success/failure reported by parents were not associated with perceived maternal control reported by adolescents	Paternal expectations (predictor) of children's future were significantly associated with maternal control (mediator) (β = .22, $p < .01$). Paternal control and maternal control (mediators) were significantly associated with positive youth development (β = .19, $p < .01$; β = .23, $p < .01$). Paternal expectations of children's future (predictor) were significantly associated with positive youth development (β = .14, $p < .05$). Perceived maternal control mediated the link between paternal expectations of children's future and positive youth development ($z = 2.41$, $p < .05$)
Leung and Shek (2019)	Chinese parents in Hong Kong (father mean age = 49.94; mother mean age = 42.18)	Chinese adolescents from Hong Kong (Mean age = 13.56, 51.3% female)	Predictor: 2c.parental expectation on children's future (father and mother-reported) Mediator: 3b.Parental control (adolescent-reported)	Cross-Sectional	Path 3 (2c.3b)	Path 3 (2c. 3b): parental expectations of children's future (parental beliefs) with parental control (parenting practices) Effect size: $r = 0.205$: parental expectations of children's future reported by fathers were positively correlated with maternal control parenting reported by adolescents #nonsignificant associations: expectations of children's future reported by mothers were not associated with perceived parental control reported by adolescents; expectations of children's future reported by fathers were not associated with perceived paternal control reported by adolescents	Higher levels of paternal and maternal expectations were associated with higher levels of adolescents' cognitive competence ($b = 0.376$, $SE = 0.161$, $p < 0.05$; $b = 0.469$, $SE = 0.162$, $p < 0.01$). Paternal control was positively associated with youth cognitive competence ($b = 0.443$, $SE = 0.185$, $p < 0.05$). There was a significant interaction between paternal expectations and maternal control on adolescent cognitive competence ($b = -0.399$, $SE = 0.172$, $p < 0.05$); the linkage between paternal expectations and adolescent cognitive competence was stronger when adolescents reported low levels of perceived maternal control ($b = 1.015$, $SE = 0.242$, $p < 0.001$) than when adolescents reported high levels of perceived maternal control ($b = -0.085$, $SE = 0.204$, $p > 0.05$) Higher levels of paternal expectations were associated with higher levels of adolescent's positive self-identity ($b = 0.483$, $SE = 0.177$, $p < 0.01$). Adolescent-reported maternal control was positively associated with their positive self-identity ($b = 0.720$, $SE = 0.200$, $p < 0.001$). There was a significant interaction between paternal expectations and maternal control on adolescent positive self-identity ($b = -0.409$, $SE = 0.185$, $p < 0.05$); the positive association between paternal expectations and adolescent positive self-identity was stronger when adolescents reported low perceived maternal control ($b = 1.023$, $SE = 0.256$, $p < 0.001$) compared to high levels ($b = -0.095$, $SE = 0.215$, $p > 0.05$)

Table 4 (continued)

Author	Demographics of parents (Age, Ethnicity, Gender)	Demographics of children	Parenting measures	Study design	Path tested	Results related to path in Fig. 1	Major findings of the article
Leung (2018)	Chinese parents in Hong Kong (fathers mean age = 49.94; mothers mean age = 42.18)	Chinese adolescents from Hong Kong (Mean age = 13.56, 51.3% female)	Predictor: 3b. Parental sacrifice (adolescent, father and mother-reported)	Cross-Sectional	None	None	There was a significant interaction between father-reported and adolescent-reported parental sacrifice on adolescent resilience (b = -0.535, SE = 0.156, p < .01) or cognitive competence (b = -0.424, SE = 0.163, p = .01). Adolescent-perceived paternal sacrifice was positively related to youth resilience (b = 1.383, SE = 0.230, p < .001) or cognitive competence (b = 1.142, SE = 0.239, p < .001) when fathers had low levels of perceptions of paternal sacrifice but nonsignificant when fathers had high levels of perceptions of paternal sacrifice There was a significant interaction between mother-reported and adolescent-reported maternal sacrifice on adolescent resilience (b = -0.463, SE = 0.182, p < .05) or cognitive competence (b = -0.405, SE = 0.153, p < .01). Higher levels of adolescent-perceived maternal sacrifice were related to more resilience (b = 1.502, SE = 0.301, p < .001) or cognitive competence (b = 0.741, SE = 0.218, p < .001) when mothers reported low levels of paternal sacrifice but became nonsignificant when mothers had high levels of perceptions of paternal sacrifice Father or mother-perceived paternal sacrifice was positively correlated with adolescents' reported paternal and maternal parental sacrifice, respective (father: r = .263, p < .001; mother: r = .197, p < .001)
Li et al. (2020)	Chinese parents living in the US (70% female; father Mean age = 40.48; mother Mean age = 38.65)	Chinese children (Mean age = 11.49, 59% female)	Predictor: 1d. Parent's educational level (parent-reported) Mediator: 3b. Parent–child literacy activities (parent-reported) Outcome: 4c. Parent–child relationship (adolescent-reported)	Cross-Sectional	Path 1 (1d,3b) Path 5 (3b,4c) Path 6 (1d,4c)	Path 1 (1d,3b): parent's educational level (parental status) with parent–child literacy activities (parenting practices) r = 0.27: parent's educational level was positively correlated with parent–child literacy activities Path 5 (3b,4c): parent–child literacy activities (parenting practice) with parent–child relationship r = 0.29: parent–child literacy activities were positively correlated with parent–child relationship Path 6 (1d,4c): parent's educational level (parental status) with parent–child relationship r = 0.26: parent's educational level was positively correlated with parent–child relationship	Parents' educational level was positively related to better parent–child relationships through more parent–child literacy activities (indirect effect = 0.06, 95% CI = [0.02, 0.12])
Liew et al. (2014)	Chinese parents living in the US (Age not specified, 73% female)	Chinese American adolescents (Mean age = 16, 62% female)	Predictor: 3b.Parental autonomy support (adolescent & parent-reported)	Cross-Sectional	None	None	Parent autonomy support (predictor) was significantly associated with better adolescent emotion-related self-regulation, which predicted higher levels of adolescent adaptive skills, linking to higher adolescents' academic achievement (indirect effect = .09, 95% CI = [0.01, 0.25])
Liu et al. (2021)	Chinese parents (66.3% female, age not specified)	Chinese middle school students (Age ranged from 12 to 14, 48.7% female)	Predictor: 3b.Parental involvement (adolescent & parent-reported) - Academic involvement - Parent–child communication - Parent-teacher communication	Cross-Sectional	None	None	Adolescent-reported parent–child communication, but not parent-reported parent–child communication (b = -0.028, SE = 0.021, p > 0.05), was negatively associated with student depression (b = -0.084, SE = 0.021, p < 0.001). Student-reported parental academic involvement (b = 0.051, SE = 0.019, p < 0.01) and parent-reported parent-teacher communication reported (b = 0.087, SE = 0.033, p < 0.01) were positively associated with student depression. Parent-reported parental academic involvement (b = -0.004, SE = 0.020, p > 0.05) and student-reported parent-teacher communication (b = -0.010, SE = 0.035, p > 0.05) were not significantly related to student depression

Table 4 (continued)

Author	Demographics of parents (Age, Ethnicity, Gender)	Demographics of children	Parenting measures	Study design	Path tested	Results related to path in Fig. 1	Major findings of the article
Lo et al. (2023)	Chinese American (including U.S. born and foreign born) parents (Age and gender not specified)	Chinese American adolescents (Mean age = 17.04, 58% female)	Predictor and outcome: 2c. Parental bicultural socialization belief (father and mother-reported) 4a. Acculturative Family Conflict (adolescent, father, and mother reported)	Longitudinal	Path 4 (4a.2c)	Path 4 (4a.2c): Acculturative Family Conflict (family conflict) and Parental bicultural socialization beliefs (parental belief) Effect size: *r* ranges from .15 to 33: father or mother-reported acculturative family conflict was positively associated with father or mother-reported bicultural socialization beliefs concurrently and across wave *r* ranges from .11 to .20: adolescent-reported acculturative family conflict was positively associated with father or mother-reported bicultural socialization beliefs concurrently $r = .13$: father-reported bicultural socialization beliefs was positively related to next-wave adolescent-reported acculturative family conflict with father $r = .20$, $b = .10$, $p < .05$: adolescent-reported acculturative family conflict was positively related to next wave mother-reported bicultural socialization beliefs $b = .20$, $p < .05$: mother-reported acculturative family conflict was positively related to next wave mother-reported bicultural socialization beliefs $b = .17$, $p < .05$: father-reported acculturative family conflict was positively related to next wave father-reported bicultural socialization beliefs #nonsignificant associations: father-reported bicultural socialization beliefs and next-wave mother-reported acculturative family conflict; father-reported bicultural socialization beliefs and concurrent wave 2 adolescent-reported acculturative family conflict with mothers or fathers; mother-reported bicultural socialization beliefs and concurrent wave 3 adolescent-reported acculturative family conflict with fathers	Cross-lagged model revealed that family conflict in middle adolescence predicted higher levels of parental bicultural socialization beliefs in emerging adulthood, rather than vice versa. Mothers' Wave 2 2 bicultural socialization beliefs and Wave 3 mother-reported family conflict were not significantly associated. The influence of fathers' bicultural socialization beliefs at Wave 2 on father-reported family conflict at Wave 3 was marginally significant ($b = .10$, $SE = .06$, $p = .083$)
Luebbe et al. (2018)	Chinese parents (Mean age = 41.82, 59.5% female) living in Shanghai	Chinese adolescents in the 9th grade (Mean age = 15.62, 57.5% female) living in Shanghai	Predictor: 2a.Socialization goals (parent-reported) - Self-development goals - Collectivism goals - Academic achievement goals - Filal piety goal Mediator: 3b.Psychological control (adolescent & parent-reported)	Cross-Sectional	Path 3 (2a.3b)	Path 3 (2a.3b): parental goals and psychological control (parenting practice) Effect size: $r = 0.26$: filial piety goals reported by parents were positively related with psychological control (i.e., a composite score of parent- and adolescent-report) $r = 0.29$: academic achievement goals reported by parents were positively related with psychological control (i.e., a composite score of parent- and adolescent-report) #nonsignificant associations: collectivism goals or self-development goals and psychological control	Across key schools (i.e., more competitive and achievement-oriented) and typical schools, parental psychological control mediated the association between parental achievement-oriented goals and youth anxiety (key school: indirect effect = 0.09, $SE = 0.04$, $p = .03$; typical school: indirect effect = 0.14, $SE = 0.08$, $p = .05$). In typical school, there was also an indirect effect from self-development goal to youth anxiety via increased psychological control (indirect effect = 0.09, $SE = 0.06$, $p = .05$)

Table 4 (continued)

Author	Demographics of parents (Age, Ethnicity, Gender)	Demographics of children	Parenting measures	Study design	Path tested	Results related to path in Fig. 1	Major findings of the article
Luo et al. (2020)	Chinese mothers (Mean age = 39.52, 50%) and Chinese fathers (Mean age = 40.56, 50%) living in China	Chinese children (Mean age = 12.52, 46% male)	Predictor: 3b. Parental favoritism (Adolescent & Parent-reported)	Cross-Sectional	None	None	Response surface analysis showed that when mother and child were in agreement of maternal favoritism, adolescents' and mothers' congruence in higher levels of maternal favoritism was associated with more adolescents' internalizing ($a_1 = 0.53$, $SE = 0.09$, $p < 0.001$) and externalizing ($a_1 = 0.53$, $SE = 0.09$, $p < 0.001$) problems. Also, when father and child were in agreement on maternal favoritism, adolescents' and fathers' congruence on higher levels of paternal favoritism was positively associated with internalizing ($a_1 = 0.55$, $SE = 0.09$, $p < 0.001$) and externalizing problems ($a_1 = 0.29$, $SE = 0.08$, $p < 0.001$). The direction and the degree of discrepancies of perceived parental favoritism in mother-adolescent dyad and father-adolescent dyad did not impact youth internalizing or externalizing problems Child reports of parental favoritism were positively and significantly associated with mothers' reports of parental favoritism ($r = 0.143$, $p < 0.05$) and fathers' reports of parental favoritism ($r = 0.181$, $p < 0.05$)
Miao et al. (2018)	Chinese parents (fathers mean age = 196 47.16, and mothers mean age = 44.79, 52% female)	Chinese Canadian children (Mean age = 14.95, 51.9% female)	Predictor: 4a. Parent–child conflict (parent-reported) Outcome: 3b. Positive parenting (as indicated by reasoning, monitoring, warmth, rigid psychological control; adolescent-reported)	Longitudinal	Path 5 (4a. 3b)	Path 5 (4a.3b): Parent–child conflict (parent–child conflict) with positive parenting (parenting practices) Effect Size: $\beta = .10$, $p < .05$: Increased parent–child conflict was associated with increases in positive parenting prospectively	Parents who reported higher levels of acculturation stress exhibited a decrease in positive parenting ($\beta = -.12$, $p < .05$)
Ranganathan and Montemayor (2014)	Indian parents living in Chennai, India (51.5% female; Fathers mean age = 48; Mothers mean age = 44)	Indian adolescents living in Chennai, India (54.4% female, Mean age males = 15.22 years, Mean age females = 15.27 years)	Predictor and Outcome: 2c. Maternal and paternal monitoring efficacy (parent-reported) 2c. Maternal and paternal efficacy (parent-reported) -Instill positive behavior -Respond to negative behavior Outcome: 3b. Maternal and paternal monitoring (parent and adolescent-reported) - Disclosure - Solicitation - Parental control	Cross-Sectional	Path 3 (2c. 3b)	Path 3 (2c. 3b) Maternal and paternal monitoring efficacy (parental beliefs) with maternal and paternal monitoring (parenting practices) $\beta = .53$, $p < .001$: Maternal monitoring efficacy was positively associated with mothers' reports of adolescent disclosure of information $\beta = .19$, $p < .05$: Maternal monitoring efficacy was positively associated with mothers' reports of maternal control $\beta = .45$, $p < .001$: Paternal monitoring efficacy was positively associated with fathers' reports of adolescent disclosure of information $\beta = .26$, $p < .01$: Paternal monitoring efficacy was positively associated with fathers' reports of solicitation of information $\beta = .39$, $p < .001$: Paternal monitoring efficacy was positively associated with fathers' reports of paternal control $\beta = .40$, $p < .001$: Maternal monitoring efficacy was positively associated with adolescents' reports of disclosure $\beta = .33$, $p < .001$: Maternal monitoring efficacy was positively associated with adolescents' reports of parental control $\beta = .34$, $p < .001$: Paternal monitoring efficacy was positively associated with adolescents' reports of disclosure $\beta = .20$, $p < .01$: Paternal monitoring efficacy was positively associated with adolescents' reports of parental control	Two dimensions of parental efficacy, including efficacy in responding to negative adolescent behavior and efficacy in instilling positive behavior in adolescents, were significantly related to parental monitoring efficacy among mothers ($\beta = .54$, $p < .001$, $\beta = .16$, $p < .01$) and for fathers ($\beta = .54$, $p < .001$, $\beta = .22$, $p < .001$)

Table 4 (continued)

Author	Demographics of parents (Age, Ethnicity, Gender)	Demographics of children	Parenting measures	Study design	Path tested	Results related to path in Fig. 1	Major findings of the article
Raval et al. (2013)	Indian mothers whose children were attending high-school (n = 275, mean age = 42.01), and mothers whose children were attending middle-school (n = 145, mean age = 38.21)	Indian college students from two colleges in the suburbs of Ahmedabad (Age = 18–23, 49.7% female)	Predictor: 3a. Parental authority (adolescent and parent-reported) - Authoritarian - Authoritative - Permissive	Cross-sectional	None	None	There were significant correlations between authoritarian parenting style, as reported by both adolescents and parents, and youth adjustment problems across all three samples. For example, college students' reports of authoritarian parenting were significantly positively correlated with school-related problems ($r = .38$). Across the parent samples (i.e., mothers with children in high school and mothers with children in middle school), their self-reports of authoritarian parenting were positively and significantly correlated with children's internalizing behaviors ($r = .21/.25$) and externalizing behaviors ($r = .17/.25$). The findings regarding authoritative and permissive styles were mixed
Rindermann et al. (2013)	Vietnamese and German parents (age and gender not specified)	Vietnamese fifth grade students (37% male, Mean age = 11) and German fifth grade students (40% male, Mean age = 11.4)	Predictor: 1d. Parental status (parent-reported) 3a. Parenting style (adolescent and parent-reported) - Authoritative - Authoritarian - Permissive - Neglecting - Confucian educational orientation	Cross-Sectional	None	None	Higher levels of parental education, more books in the family, being in families with two married parents, being older child in the family, more times for lessons, higher family income, and greater endorsement of Confucian educational values, and from Vietnamese (vs. German) background were related to higher levels of children cognitive ability
Rohanachandra et al. (2020)	Sri Lankan parents with mental illness (N = 220, 85% were 18–54 years old, 57.1% female)	Sri Lankan children (age and gender not specified)	Predictor: 1d. Marital status (parent-reported) 1d. Occupational status (parent-reported) Outcome: 1b. Parental mental health (adolescent and parent-reported)	Cross-sectional	None	None	Children's knowledge about parental mental illness differed significantly with parent's age ($\chi^2 = 149$, $p < 0.01$), gender ($\chi^2 = 6.12$, $p < 0.05$), marital status ($\chi^2 = 17.16$, $p < 0.01$) and living circumstances ($\chi^2 = 12.68$, $p < 0.01$)

Table 4 (continued)

Author	Demographics of parents (Age, Ethnicity, Gender)	Demographics of children	Parenting measures	Study design	Path tested	Results related to path in Fig. 1	Major findings of the article
Shih and Yi (2014)	Taiwanese fathers (Mean age = 43.37) and mothers (Mean age = 40.31)	Taiwanese children in 7th grade, (51.5% male)	Predictor: 1d. Parental occupational status (parent-reported) 1d. parental educational status (parent-reported) 2b. Parental Values (parent-reported) - Autonomy - Conformity 3b. Democratic parenting behavior (adolescent-reported)	Cross-Sectional	Path 2 (1d.2b) Path 1 (1d.3b)	Path 2 (1d.2b): Fathers' and mothers' occupational status (parental status) with parental perceived importance of autonomy, conformity (parenting values) Effect Size: $r = -.060$: Being a father with an upper white-collar job was negatively correlated with conformity $r = .089$: Being a father with an upper white-collar job was positively correlated with autonomy $r = -.053$: Being a father with a white-collar job was negatively correlated with conformity $r = .064$: Being a father with a white-collar job was positively correlated with autonomy $r = .055$: Being a father with a blue-collar job was positively correlated with conformity $r = -.125$: Being a father with a blue-collar job was negatively associated with autonomy $r = -.064$: Being a mother with an upper white collar job was negatively correlated with conformity $r = .078$: Being a mother with an upper white collar job was positively correlated with autonomy $r = .056$: Being a mother with a white collar job was positively correlated with autonomy $r = -.071$: Being a mother who is a housewife was negatively correlated with autonomy ##nonsignificant associations: Being a father with a service worker job was not associated with conformity; Being a mother with a white collar job was not associated with conformity. Being a mother with a service worker job was not associated with conformity and autonomy. Being a mother with a blue-collar job was not associated with conformity and autonomy. Being a housewife was not associated with conformity Path 2 (1d.2b): Fathers' and mothers' education (parental status) with parental perceived importance of autonomy, conformity (parenting values) Effect Size: $r = -.123$: Father's education was negatively correlated with conformity $r = .189$: Father's education was positively correlated with autonomy $r = -.155$: Mother's education was negatively correlated with conformity $r = .175$: Mother's education was positively correlated with autonomy Path 1 (1d.3b): Fathers' and mothers' occupational status (parental status) with democratic parenting (parenting practices) No effect size reported: being parents with (upper) white-collar jobs were associated with more democratic parenting practice compared to others Path 1 (1d.3b): Fathers' and mothers' education (parental status) with democratic parenting (parenting practices) No effect size reported: parents' education was associated with more democratic parenting practice compared to others	Parental values have limited influence on after-school activities for Taiwanese youth. However, democratic parenting behaviors showed a significant and positive impact on encouraging activity enrollment

Table 4 (continued)

Author	Demographics of parents (Age, Ethnicity, Gender)	Demographics of children	Parenting measures	Study design	Path tested	Results related to path in Fig. 1	Major findings of the article
To et al. (2020)	Chinese parents in Hong Kong (Age not specified, Pilot sample: 72.3% female; validation sample: 87.3% female)	Chinese children (Age not specified. Only in validation sample: 56.3% male)	3b. Parental psychosocial support (adolescent and parent-reported) 3b. Parental career-related actions (adolescent and parent-reported) 2c. Parental efficacy (parent-reported)	Cross-Sectional	Path 3 (2c.3b)	Path 3 (2c. 3b): parental efficacy (parental beliefs) with parental psychosocial support and career-related actions (parenting practices) Effect size: $r = .33$: parent-reported parental efficacy was positively correlated with parent-report parental psychosocial support $r = .39$: parent-reported parental efficacy was positively correlated with parent-report career-related actions $r = .28$: adolescent-reported parental efficacy was positively correlated with parent-report parental psychosocial support $r = .23$: adolescent -reported parental efficacy was positively correlated with parent-report career-related actions	Chinese version of the Parent Career Behavior Checklist was examined to be psychometrically valid
Wang and Faldowski (2014)	Chinese parents (58% male, mean age = 42 years)	Chinese children aged 12–15 (85% of the students were 13 or 14 years old, 55% female)	Predictor: 2c.The legitimacy of decision authority (adolescent and parent-reported)	Cross-Sectional	None	None	Among parents, 11.6% were classified into the parent control subgroup who believed most issues should be decided by parents or parents primarily. In the child control subgroup (24.8%), parents endorsed that most issues should be decided by adolescents (with or without parental input). The major subgroup, the shared control subgroup (63.6% of the parents) favored parental decision authority for prudential and conventional issues but preferred adolescent decision authority for multifaceted and personal issues 5.8% of adolescents were grouped in the parent control subgroup, and about 33.5% of adolescents were classified into the child control subgroup. 60.7% of adolescents were classified into the shared control subgroup. Youth in this group preferred parental decision authority for prudential and conventional issues, whereas for multifaceted and personal issues, they preferred adolescent decision-making authority, with the exception of dating Further, memberships of profiles were related to family residency status (urban vs. rural), youth sibling status, adolescent gender, adolescent depressive symptoms, and their school misconduct. For example, adolescent misconduct was predicted by parent latent classes, $F(2, 592) = 3.57$, $p = .03$, but not adolescent latent classes. Adolescents showed more misconduct in school when their parents were in the parent control group compared to those whose parents were in the child control or shared control group
Wang et al. (2018)	Chinese mothers and fathers of junior high school students in Eastern China, (Age not specified)	Chinese junior high school students in Eastern China (Mean age = 12.55, 57.3% male)	Predictor: 3b.Harsh parenting (adolescent and parent-reported)	Cross-Sectional	None	None	Harsh parenting was related to lower effortful control among boys ($\beta = -.28$) and girls ($\beta = -.21$). Additionally, harsh parenting related to lower academic achievement for both boys ($\beta = -.15$) and girls ($\beta = -.18$). However, harsh parenting diminished classroom engagement among girls only ($\beta = -.19$), but not boys. The indirect effect of harsh parenting to lower academic achievement sequentially through lower effortful control to lower classroom engagement was significant for boys (indirect effect = -0.049) and girls (indirect effect = -0.035). Harsh parenting could indirectly influence boys' academic achievement via effortful control (indirect effect = -0.092). Harsh parenting indirectly influences girls' academic achievement via classroom engagement (indirect effect = -0.048)

Table 4 (continued)

Author	Demographics of parents (Age, Ethnicity, Gender)	Demographics of children	Parenting measures	Study design	Path tested	Results related to path in Fig. 1	Major findings of the article
Wang et al. (2021)	Chinese parents of sixth through eighth grades students (Age and gender not specified)	Chinese sixth through eighth grades students living in Northern China (Mean age = 13.36, 56.96% male)	Predictor: 3b. Harsh parenting (father and mother-reported) Mediator: 4c. Parent–child attachment (adolescent-reported)	Cross-Sectional	Path 5 (3b.4c)	Path 5 (3b.4c): Harsh parenting reported by mothers and fathers (parenting practice) with adolescent attachment insecurity reported by adolescents (parent–child relationship) Effect size: βs range from .24 to .37; *r*s range from .40 to.51: Harsh parenting reported by mothers and fathers was positively associated with adolescent attachment insecurity reported by adolescents	Father-reported parental harsh parenting and mother-reported maternal harsh parenting were detrimental to adolescent social anxiety through greater levels of adolescent-reported attachment insecurity with mothers (indirect effect for paternal harsh parenting: 0.074; for maternal harsh parenting: 0.115)
Yang et al. (2021)	Chinese parents (Mean age = 41.80, 70% female)	Chinese children (Mean age = 13.35, 50% female)	Predictor: 1c. Parental burnout (parent-report) Mediator: 3b. Autonomy support (adolescent and parent-report)	Longitudinal	Path 1 (1c.3b)	Path 1 (1c.3b): Parental burnout reported by parents (parent burnout) with autonomy support (parental practices) reported by parents and adolescents at the same wave Effect size: β = -0.16: Parental burnout reported by parents was negatively associated with autonomy support reported by adolescents The path was also significant for parent-reported autonomy support, but no specific effect sizes were reported *r* = -0.16: Parental burnout reported by parents was negatively correlated with autonomy support reported adolescents *r* = -0.28: Parental burnout reported by parents was negatively correlated with autonomy support reported parents	In the model including both parent- and adolescent-reported autonomy support, only adolescent-reported autonomy support mediated the path from parental burnout to youth depressive symptoms (indirect effect = 0.04, 95% CI = [0.01, 0.08]) and anxiety (indirect effect = 0.03, 95% CI = [0.01, 0.06]) two months later Parental cognitive reappraisal moderated the path from parental burnout to youth depressive symptoms (b = -0.07, SE = 0.04, $p < .05$) and anxiety (b = -0.11, SE = 0.03, $p < .01$). Parental burnout was related to higher levels of youth depressive symptoms and anxiety for parents who have low levels of cognitive reappraisal, but not for parents who have high levels of cognitive reappraisal
Yang et al. (2022)	Chinese parents in Shanghai (Mean age = 41.80, 70% female)	Chinese middle school students in Shanghai (Mean age = 13.35, 50% female)	Predictor: 4c. Parent–child attachment (adolescent report) Mediator: 3b. Parent–child COVID-19 communication (parents report)	Longitudinal	Path 5 (4c.3b)	Path 5 (4c.3b): Parental attachment security reported by adolescents (parent–child relationship) with parent–child COVID communication frequency reported by parents (parenting practice) Effect size: β = 0.20, *r* = 0.20: Parental attachment security was positively associated with parent–child COVID communication frequency at the same wave	Secure attachment with parents was related to more COVID-related (β = .13, p = .03) and general health behaviors (β = .13, p = .02), as well as less depressive (β = −.29, $p < .001$) and anxiety symptoms (β = −.20, $p < .001$) two months later Higher levels of COVID-19 communication at Wave 1 were related to more frequent COVID-19-related health behavior (β = .19, $p < .001$) and general health behavior at Wave 2 (β = .17, $p < .001$) Secure attachment with parents was related to higher frequencies of parent–child communication about COVID, leading to more COVID-related health behavior (indirect effect = 0.03, 95% CI = [0.01, 0.06]) or more general health behavior (indirect effect = 0.02, 95% CI = [0.00, 0.04]) two months later

Table 4 (continued)

Author	Demographics of parents (Age, Ethnicity, Gender)	Demographics of children	Parenting measures	Study design	Path tested	Results related to path in Fig. 1	Major findings of the article
Yasui et al. (2018)	Korean American parents, (Father mean age = 46.3; Mother mean age = 43.4; 62.38% female)	Korean American adolescents (mean age = 12.97, 52.27% male)	Predictor: 1b. Parental distress (parent-reported) -Cultural-specific symptoms -Somatic symptoms Mediator: 3b. Parenting practices (parent and adolescent-report) -parental rejection (parent-reported) -parental direct and indirect affection (adolescent and parent-reported) 4a. Intergenerational conflict (adolescent-reported) 4c. Bonding to mother/father (adolescent report)	Cross-Sectional	Path 1 (1b.3b) Path 5 (3b,4a) (3b,4c) Path 6 (1b. 4a) (1b. 4c)	Path 1 (1b.3b): Parental distress (parental mental health) with parenting practices Effect size: β = .242: maternal somatic symptoms were positively associated with parent report rejection β = −.152: maternal somatic symptoms were marginally negatively associated with parent report direct affection r = .23: parent-report rejection was positively correlated with paternal cultural symptoms r = .22: parent-report rejection was positively correlated with paternal somatic symptoms r = .28: parent-report rejection was positively correlated with maternal cultural symptoms r = .32: parent-report rejection was positively correlated with maternal somatic symptoms r = −.17: parent-report perception of direct affection was negatively correlated with maternal somatic symptoms r = −.15: parent-report perception of indirect affection was negatively correlated with maternal cultural symptoms r = −.15: parent-report perception of direct affection was negatively correlated with maternal somatic symptoms #nonsignificant association: in the mediation model, paternal somatic and cultural symptoms were not associated with parenting practices reported by both parents and adolescents, maternal cultural symptoms were not associated with parenting practices reported by both parents and adolescents, maternal somatic symptoms were not associated with indirect affection reported by parents and children and direct affection reported by children; in the correlation, cultural and somatic symptoms were not associated with parent- and child-reported direct and indirect affection Path 5 (3b, 4a)(3b,4c): Parenting practices and family conflict or bonding with parents (parent–child relationship) Effect size: r = .16: Bonding to mothers reported by adolescents was positively correlated with parent-reported direct affection rs range from .48—.71: Bonding to father/mother was positively correlated with adolescent-reported direct and indirect affection r = −.25: Intergenerational conflict was negatively correlated with adolescent-reported direct affection r = −.18: Intergenerational conflict was negatively correlated with adolescent-reported indirect affection #nonsignificant association: in the mediation model: Parenting practices reported by parents were not associated with family conflict reported by adolescents; in the correlation: all the other associations except what is reported above Path 6 (1b. 4a) (1b. 4c): Parental distress (parental mental health) with family conflict or bonding to mother/father Effect size: r = .17, β = .330: paternal cultural symptoms were positively associated with intergenerational conflict β = −.225: paternal somatic symptoms were negatively associated with intergenerational conflict r = −.20: paternal cultural symptoms were negatively associated with bonding to father r = −.20: paternal somatic symptoms were negatively associated with bonding to father #nonsignificant association: maternal distress was not associated with family conflict or bonding to mother	In the models for fathers, there was a significant direct association between fathers' somatic symptoms of distress and youth depression (β = 0.342. $p < 0.01$), but there was no significant direct association between fathers' cultural symptoms of distress and youth outcomes. Paternal cultural and somatic symptoms indirectly influenced youth depressive symptoms via adolescents' perceptions of being ashamed of parents (β = 0.040. 95% CI = [0.002, 0.121]) and intergenerational conflicts (β = 0.071. 95% CI = [0.014, 0.193]) In the model for mothers, somatic symptoms and cultural symptoms did not directly related to youth depressive symptoms. The indirect path from maternal distress (i.e., cultural and somatic symptoms) to adolescents' depressive symptoms was not significant

Table 4 (continued)

Author	Demographics of parents (Age, Ethnicity, Gender)	Demographics of children	Parenting measures	Study design	Path tested	Results related to path in Fig. 1	Major findings of the article
Yeung and Chan (2016)	Chinese parents in Hong Kong (Age and gender not specified)	Chinese adolescents and youth (Age = 14–21) in Hong Kong (Mean age = 16.7, 44.4% male)	Mediator: 1b. Parental depression (parent-reported) 3b. Effective parenting practices (adolescent and parent-reported) 4d. Positive family functioning (adolescent and parent-reported)	Cross-sectional	Path 1 (1b.3b), Path 5 (4d.3b) Path 6 (1b.4d)	Path 1 (1b.3b): Parental depression (parental mental health) with effective parenting practice (parenting practices) Effect size: r = -0.266: Parental depression was negatively correlated with parent-reported effective parenting practice r = -0.187: Parental depression was negatively correlated with adolescent-reported parenting practice # nonsignificant association: Parent depression reported by parents was not associated with parenting styles reported by parents and children in the examined mediation model Path 5 (4d.3b): Positive family functioning (family cohesion) with effective parenting practice Effect size: β = .552: Parent-reported positive family functioning was positively associated with parent-reported effective parenting practice β = .701: Adolescent reported positive family functioning was positively associated with adolescent reported effective parenting practice rs range from .225 to .712 for correlation Path 6 (1b.4d): Parental depression (parental mental health) with positive family functioning (family cohesion) Effect size: β = −.233: Parental depression was negatively correlated with parent-reported positive family functioning β = −.146: Parental depression was negatively correlated with adolescent-reported positive family functioning rs range from −.187 to −.339 for correlation	Parent-reported intrinsic religiosity positive related to their religious coping (β = 0.452, p < .01), which was related to lower levels of parent-reported depression (β = -0.142, p < .05), leading to lower levels of positive family function reported by parents/adolescents/both parents and adolescents (βs range from -0.146 to -0.233, p < .05), resulting in lower effective parenting practices reported by parents/adolescents/both parents and adolescents (βs range from .552 to .701, p < .01) and higher levels of child mental distress (βs range from -0.345 to -0.211, p < .01). The total indirect path was not significant
Yeung (2016a)	Chinese parents in Hong Kong (Age not specified, 80.7% female)	Chinese children (Mean age = 16.7, 55.6% males)	Predictor: 3b. Effective parenting practices (adolescent and parent-reported)	Cross-Sectional	None	None	The discrepancy of adolescent-reported and parent-reported effective parenting practices (predictor) negatively and significantly relates to the following child outcomes: child self-control (β = -0.228, p < .01), child self-concept (β = -0.208, p < .01) and child other perspective taking behavior (β = -0.224, p < .01) Aggregate effective parenting (predictor) positively and significantly relates to child self-control (β = 0.292, p < .01), child self-concept (β = 0.223, p < .01), and child other perspective-taking behavior (β = 0.263, p < .01) Ordinary Least Squares regression indicates a significant interaction of parent–child discrepancies in effective parenting and aggregate effective parenting on child self-concept (β = −.428, p < .01) and other perspective taking behavior (β = −.310, p < .01). More specifically, the effects of parent–child effective parenting discrepancies on adolescents outcomes were only significantly at the moderate aggregate parenting context (child self-concept:β = −.368; child self-control: β = −.351; child other perspective taking: β = −.342)

Table 4 (continued)

Author	Demographics of parents (Age, Ethnicity, Gender)	Demographics of children	Parenting measures	Study design	Path tested	Results related to path in Fig. 1	Major findings of the article
Yeung (2016b)	Chinese parents in Hong Kong (Age not specified, 80.7% female)	Chinese children in Hong Kong (Mean age = 16.7, 55.6% females)	Predictor: 3b. Effective parenting practices (adolescent and parent-reported) 4d. Positive family functioning (adolescent and parent-reported)	Cross-sectional	Path 5 (3b. 4d)	Path 5 (3b. 4d): Average effective parenting of parent and adolescent report (parenting practices) with the positive family function of parent and adolescent report (family functioning) Effect size: $r = 0.719$: Average effective parenting of parent and adolescent report was positively correlated with the average positive family function of parent and adolescent report	Regarding the direct associations between parent–child discrepancies and adolescent outcomes, parent–child discrepancies in effective parenting had negative effects on youth's positive self-concept (β = -0.211, $p < 0.01$), self-control (β = -0.141, $p < 0.05$), and other perspective-taking behavior (β = -0.156, $p < 0.01$). For the indirect effect, discrepancies in perceived effective parenting or positive family function between parent and adolescents were related to lower levels of adolescents' self-concept, leading to lower levels of self-control (indirect effect for effective parenting: Z = -2.540, σ = 0.022, $p < 0.05$; for family function: Z = -3.862, σ = 0.030, $p < 0.01$) and perspective taking behaviors (for effective parenting: Z = -2.712, σ = 0.027, $p < 0.01$; for positive family function: Z = -3.341, σ = 0.026, $p < 0.01$) On the other hand, aggregate effective parenting was significantly associated with higher levels of youth self-concept (β = -0.221, $p < 0.01$), self-control (β = 0.170, $p < 0.01$), and other perspective-taking behavior (β = 0.219, $p < 0.01$). For the indirective effect, aggregated perceived effective parenting between parents and adolescents was related to higher levels of adolescents' self-concept, leading to higher levels of self-control (for effective parenting: Z = 3.432, σ = 0.027, $p < 0.01$; for positive family function: Z = 4.055, σ = 0.031, $p < 0.01$) and perspective taking behaviors (for effective parenting: Z = 3.863, σ = 0.031, $p < 0.01$; for positive family function: Z = 3.467, σ = 0.028, $p < 0.01$)
Yeung et al. (2018)	Chinese parents in Hong Kong (Age not specified, 80.7% female)	Chinese children (Mean age = 16.7, 55.6% males)	Predictor: 3b. Effective parenting practices (adolescent and parent-reported)	Cross-Sectional	None	None	Discrepancies between parents and children in effective parenting practices were associated with lower children's self-concept (β = −.206, $p < .01$), self-control (β = −.138, $p < .05$), and other perspective-taking behaviors (β = −.152, $p < .05$). For the indirect effect, discrepancies in perceived effective parenting between adolescents and mothers were negatively related to adolescents self-concept, leading to more adolescents internalizing symptoms (Z = 2.918, σ = .025, $p < .01$), externalizing symptoms (Z = 2.179, σ = .015, $p < .05$), lower self-control (Z = -2.914, σ = .024, $p < .01$), and lower other perspective taking behaviors (Z = -2.725, σ = .0199, $p < .01$) On the other side, aggregate effective parenting practices positively associated with children's self-concept (β = .253, $p < .01$), self-control (β = .192, $p < .01$), other perspective-taking behavior (β = .243, $p < .01$), internalizing problems (β = −.144, $p < .05$), and externalizing problems (β = −.181, $p < .01$). For the indirect effect, average levels of perceived effective parenting of adolescents and mothers were positively related to adolescents' self-concept, leading to fewer adolescents' internalizing symptoms (Z = -3.473, σ = .032, $p < .01$), externalizing symptoms (Z = -2.402, σ = .021, $p < .05$), higher self-control (Z = 3.465, σ = .030, $p < .01$), and lower other perspective taking behaviors (Z = 3.167, σ = .025, $p < .01$) The discrepancy of adolescent-reported and parent-reported effective parenting practices (predictor) significantly relates to lower levels of child self-control (β = -0.346, $p < .01$) and child other perspective-taking behavior (β = -0.351, $p < .01$) only when the aggregate effective parenting practices was moderate, rather than low or high

Table 4 (continued)

Author	Demographics of parents (Age, Ethnicity, Gender)	Demographics of children	Parenting measures	Study design	Path tested	Results related to path in Fig. 1	Major findings of the article
Yoon et al. (2021)	Korean American mothers (Mean age = 45.01)	Korean American children (Mean age = 14.7, 53% male)	Mediator: 3a. Parenting style (adolescent and mother-reported) -Authoritarian parenting -Authoritative parenting 3b. Parenting practice -Parental warmth (mother-reported) -Autonomy support (adolescent and mother-reported) -Interdependence (mother-reported) -Academically oriented parental control (adolescent and mother-reported) -Parent–child communication (adolescent and mother-reported) -Parental Commitment to Child's Education (adolescent and mother-reported) 4c. parent–child relationship -Bonding to parents (adolescent reported)	Longitudinal	Path 5 (3a. 4c) (3b. 4c)	Path 5 (3a. 4c): Authoritarian or authoritative parenting (parenting style) with bonding to parents (parent–child relationship) Effect size: $r = .12$: Authoritative parenting reported by parents was positively correlated with bonding to parents reported by adolescents # nonsignificant associations: Authoritarian parenting reported by parents or adolescents was not associated with bonding to parents reported by adolescents Path (3b.4c) Parental warmth, autonomy support, interdependence, parental control, parent–child communication (parenting practice) with bonding to parents (parent–child relationship) Effect size: $r = .22$: Parental warmth reported by parents was positively correlated with bonding to parents reported by adolescents $r = .35$: Autonomy support reported by adolescents was positively correlated with bonding to parents reported by adolescents $r = .26$: Academic parental control reported by adolescents was positively correlated with bonding to parents reported by adolescents $r = .23$ and .44: Parent–child communication, reported by parents and adolescents separately, was positively correlated with bonding to parents reported by adolescents $r = .35$ Parental commitment to child's education reported by adolescents was positively correlated with bonding to parents reported by adolescents #nonsignificant associations: Autonomy support reported by parents/interdependence reported by parents/academic parental control reported by parents was not associated with bonding to parents reported by adolescents. Parental commitment to child's education reported by mother was not associated with bonding to parents reported by adolescents; Parental commitment to child's education reported by mother was not associated with bonding to parents reported by mother; Parental commitment to child's education reported by adolescents was not associated with bonding to parents reported by mother	Mothers' acculturation was significantly associated with mother-reported parenting including authoritative parenting (b = .14, SE = .05, β = .17, $p = .005$), parental warmth (b = .28, SE = .06, β = .24, $p < .001$), and autonomy support (b = .18, SE = .05, β = 23, p < .001), also significantly related to parent–child communication (b = .28, SE = .05, β = .28, $p < .001$), Mothers' enculturation was significantly related to mother-reported culture-specific parenting including parent–child interdependence ($b = .19$, $SE = .08$, β = .13, $p = .016$), commitment to child's education ($b = .31$, $SE = .11$, β = .17, $p = .004$), and academic control ($b = .35$, $SE = .09$, β = .20, $p < .001$). Mothers' enculturation was also significantly related to mainstream parenting, such as authoritarian parenting ($b = .18$, $SE = .07$, β = .14, $p = .015$) and parental warmth ($b = .26$, $SE = .06$, β = .14, $p = .008$) Mother-reported autonomy support mediates the positive effects of mother-reported parent acculturation at Time 1 on adolescent-reported youth academic performance at Time 2 (indirect effect = .037, 95% CI = [.009, .054])
G. Zhang et al. (2017)	Chinese parents in Suzhou (Age not specified, 60% male)	Chinese children (Mean age = 12.95, 54% male)	Predictor: 1d. Parental migrant status (adolescent-reported, teacher-verified) 1d. Parental education level (adolescent-reported) Predictor & outcome (cross-lagged): 3b. Parental monitoring (adolescent and parent-reported) 3b. Autonomy support (adolescent-reported) 3a. Authoritative parenting (parent-reported)	Longitudinal	Path 1 (1d.3a) (1d.3b)	Path 1 (1d.3a): parental migrant status (parental status; 0 = nonimmigrant; 1 = migrant) with positive parenting (i.e., a latent variable based on parenting practice and style measured in this study) Effect size: β = −.48: being migrant parents was related to lower positive parenting compared to nonimmigrant parents Path 1 (1d.3a): parental education level with positive parenting (i.e., a latent variable based on parenting practice and style measured in this study) Effect size: β = .58: parental education was positively related to positive parenting	Positive parenting (a latent variable) was positively related to school competence across time (β = .20 from wave 1 to 2; β = .25 from wave 2 to 3); academic achievement was positively related to school competence across time (β = .40 from wave 1 to 2; β = .28 from wave 2 to 3). Parents being migrant (vs. nonimmigrant) was related to lower positive parenting (β = −.48), lower youth psychological well-being (β = −.22), and lower youth academic achievement (β = −.19) at wave 1

Table 4 (continued)

Author	Demographics of parents (Age, Ethnicity, Gender)	Demographics of children	Parenting measures	Study design	Path tested	Results related to path in Fig. 1	Major findings of the article
W. Zhang et al. (2017)	Chinese mothers living in Jinan, China (Mean age = 38.17)	Chinese elementary school students (Mean age = 11.27, 52% male)	Predictor: 3b. Parenting practices (mother report) - Parental warmth - Inductive reasoning - Encouragement of independence - Encouragement of achievement - Supervision - Harshness Outcome: 4c.mother-adolescent cohesion (adolescent report)	Longitudinal	Path 5 (3a.4c)	Path 5 (3a.4c): parenting style (profiles based on parenting practices measures) and mother-adolescent cohesion (parent–child relationship) Effect size: $F = 12.95$, $p < .001$ (Wave 1 profiles to Wave 4 mother-adolescent cohesion); $F = 28.30$, $p < .001$ (wave 2 profiles to Wave 4 mother-adolescent cohesion); $F = 4.51$, $p < .001$ (wave 3 profiles to wave 4 mother-adolescent cohesion): Being in the authoritative profile and high-level undifferentiated profile at Wave 1, 2 or 3 was related to higher levels of mother-adolescent cohesion at wave 4, compared to the average-level undifferentiated profile, followed by the authoritarian profile	Four parenting profiles were identified in three waves based on mother-reported parenting practices. Among them, the authoritative profile has the lowest externalizing and internalizing symptoms and the highest self-esteem, social preference, self-reported academic performance, and mother-adolescent cohesion, while adolescents in authoritarian profiles showed the worst adjustment across those domains. Across waves, around 50% to 70% of families stay in the same profile, and the authoritarian parenting style showed the least stability compared to other profile groups (probability ranged from 51.6 to 61.6% for the authoritarian parenting style, while 70.2 to 80.9% families of other parenting styles stayed stable across waves)
Zhou et al. (2021)	Study1: Chinese parents in Shanghai, China (Mean age = 41.71, 77% female Study2: Chinese parents in Shanghai, China (Age and gender not specified)	Study1: Chinese adolescents from one middle school in Shanghai (Mean age = 12.86, 55% female) Study2: Chinese adolescents from one middle school and one high school in Shanghai (Middle school sample: mean age = 12.76 and 54% female; High school sample: mean age = 16.24 and 53% female)	Predictor: 2a. Parental socialization goals (adolescent and parent-reported in study 1, adolescent report in study 2) - Self-development goals - Achievement-oriented goals - Interdependence-oriented goals Mediator: 3b. Parenting practices (adolescent-reported in study 2) - Autonomy support - Psychological control	Cross-Sectional	Path 3 (2a.3b)	Path 3 (2a.3b): parental socialization goals (parental goals) to parenting practices Effect size: $\beta = -.19$ for middle school, $\beta = -.39$ for high school; $r = -.35$ for high school students: self-developmental goals were negatively associated with psychological control $\beta = .63$ for middle school, $\beta = .58$ for high school; $r = .46$ for middle school; $r = .60$ for high school: self-developmental goals were positively associated with autonomy support $\beta = .52$ for middle school, $\beta = .39$ for high school; $r = .39$ for middle school; $r = .47$ for high school: achievement goals were positively associated with psychological control $\beta = -.37$ for middle school, $\beta = -.28$ for high school; $r = -.30$ for high school students: achievement goals were negatively associated with autonomy support $r = .12$ for middle school; $r = .15$ for high school: interdependence-oriented goals were positively correlated with psychological control $r = .16$ for middle school students: interdependence-oriented goals were positively correlated with autonomy support #nonsignificant associations: In the SEM model, for both middle school and high school students, interdependence goals were not significantly related to either psychological control or autonomy support	In study 1, only children reporting more self-development parental goals (predictor), but not other goals, were related to less depressive symptoms ($\beta = -0.18$, $p < .05$). All three types of parental socialization goals reported by parents (predictor) were not significantly related to adolescent depressive symptoms In study 2, child-reported parental autonomy support (mediator) mediated the effects of child-reported self-development (indirect effect = −.17, 95% CI = [−.28, −.08]) and achievement-oriented parental goals (indirect effect = .10, 95% CI = [.04, .17]) (predictors) on children's depressive symptoms (outcome) among middle school students. Child-reported parental psychological control (mediator) mediated the effects of child-reported self-development (indirect effect = −.11, 95% CI = [−.19, −.04]) and achievement-oriented parental goals (indirect effect = .11, 95% CI = [.04, .19]) (predictors) on children's depressive symptoms among high school students

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Authors' Contributions SYK conceived the study, developed the search strategy, supervised the title/abstract screening and full-text reviewing, synthesized the studies' findings, and drafted and supervised the manuscript writing; JS drafted the manuscript and validated the coded data; MPYC helped synthetize the study findings and drafted the manuscript; TZ drafted the manuscript and coded and analyzed the data; WW co-conceived the study, coded and analyzed the data, and provided a critical review of the manuscript; AYHL helped draft the manuscript and provided a critical review of the manuscript; KMC coded and analyzed the data; JY contributed to the conceptualization of the study and provided a critical review of the manuscript; EKG validated the coded data and provided a review of the manuscript. All authors read and approved the final manuscript.

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Data availability All data in this systematic review were obtained from the original published studies.

Declarations

Conflict of interest The authors report no competing interests to declare.

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